

Aridity and herbivory shape demographic benefits of fungal endophytes in cool-season grasses

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Abstract

Plant-microbe symbioses are expected to enhance host resilience to environmental stress, yet whether symbiont effects differ across abiotic versus biotic stress dimensions remains unclear. We tested how aridity and herbivory shape fitness effects of vertically transmitted fungal endophytes on three grass host species using herbivore exclusion experiments along a precipitation gradient in the south-central United States. Contrary to predictions, endophyte-symbiotic hosts showed stronger declines in demographic performance with aridity than endophyte-free plants, suggesting abiotic stress exacerbated symbiont costs. Endophyte symbiosis reduced herbivore damage for two host species, consistent with protective benefits, but exclusion effects were weaker and more idiosyncratic relative to climate stress. A greenhouse experiment using soils from field sites showed endophyte effects were not strongly sensitive to soil origin, supporting a causal role of climate in driving site-level variation. Together, these results challenge the expectation that stress enhances symbiosis benefits and suggest limited buffering potential under increasing aridity.

15 Introduction

16 Mutualistic symbioses are widespread and ecologically important, often mediating stress
17 tolerance and defense against natural enemies for host organisms. Host-symbiont interactions,
18 like mutualisms more broadly, are strongly context-dependent, with outcomes shaped by envi-
19 ronment (Bronstein, 1994; Hoang et al., 2024; Hoeksema and Bruna, 2015; Rudgers et al., 2020).
20 The stress-gradient hypothesis (SGH) is a classic conceptual framework for variation in interac-
21 tion outcomes, predicting that the frequency of positive interactions increases under stressful
22 conditions (Bertness and Callaway, 1994; Holmgren and Scheffer, 2010; Louthan et al., 2015;
23 Maestre et al., 2009). For example, microbial symbionts that are costly to maintain under benign
24 conditions may benefit host plants under drought stress (Giauque et al., 2019). Stress can take
25 many forms, including abiotic and biotic factors, and it remains unclear how predictions of the
26 SGH for host-symbiont interactions play out over different dimensions of environmental stress.

27 Under biotic stress, such as competition or attack by natural enemies, symbionts can me-
28 diate defensive traits across diverse taxa (Atala et al., 2022; Bastias et al., 2017; Flórez et al., 2015;
29 Haine, 2008; Vega, 2008). Similarly, under abiotic stress, including drought, nutrient limitation,
30 and thermal extremes, symbiotic partners often enhance host tolerance through improved
31 resource acquisition, physiological regulation, and stress-responsive metabolism (Afkhami and
32 Rudgers, 2008; Cesar et al., 2024; Clay and Schardl, 2002). In plants specifically, microbial sym-
33 bionts such as mycorrhizae, rhizobia, and endophytic bacteria and fungi can promote water
34 and nutrient uptake, nitrogen fixation, and resistance to herbivores, allowing hosts to maintain
35 growth and function under harsh abiotic or biotic conditions (Amijee et al., 1989; Friesen et al.,
36 2011; van Der Heijden et al., 2015). Many plant symbionts also stimulate the production of
37 antioxidant enzymes, reducing oxidative damage caused by stressors such as drought, salinity,
38 and heat (Ruiz-lazona et al., 1996). By improving resource acquisition, modulating physiology,
39 and enhancing stress-responsive metabolism, these interactions help host plants buffer against
40 environmental extremes (Fowler et al., 2023; Li et al., 2026; Rudgers et al., 2020).

41 Environmental stress can shift the balance of costs and benefits between hosts and their
42 symbiotic microbes, though the direction of this shift depends on environmental context. In
43 plants, maintaining symbionts requires hosts to allocate valuable carbon and nutrients; for
44 example, mycorrhizal fungi can demand up to 20% of a host's photosynthetically fixed carbon
45 (Soudzilovskaia et al., 2015; Thirkell et al., 2020). Under stress, this investment can outweigh
46 benefits, reducing survival, growth, or reproduction (Bronstein, 2001; Johnson et al., 1997;
47 Klironomos, 2003). A parallel dynamic occurs in coral bleaching, where heat stress disrupts the
48 coral-algal mutualism and where the thermal thresholds triggering breakdown are relatively
49 well quantified, unlike in most other symbioses (Evensen et al., 2022; Marangon et al., 2025;

Vidal-Dupiol et al., 2009). Across both plant and coral systems, symbiotic microbes can therefore either mitigate or exacerbate host responses to environmental stress, depending on stress severity, the type and combination of stressors, and characteristics of the interacting partners (David et al., 2018; Kawai and Tokeshi, 2007; Le Roux and McGeoch, 2010; Michalet, 2007). However, across systems, the frequency of such symbiosis breakdown and the environmental or biological thresholds that trigger them remain poorly understood. Quantifying these limits is essential for predicting when stress will enhance mutualistic outcomes and when it will impose demographic costs on hosts.

Despite growing interest in symbiosis and host demography under environmental stress, few studies have tested how abiotic and biotic stressors synergistically shape the costs and benefits of symbiosis to host organisms. In a greenhouse study of *Ammophila breviligulata*, symbiont-infected plants grew more than symbiont-free plants under either herbivory or drought alone, but this benefit disappeared when the two stressors were combined, with infected and uninfected plants showing similar growth (Emery et al., 2010). Studying the combined effects of abiotic and biotic stressors under natural conditions is particularly important in the context of global change (Louthan et al., 2015), as shifting climate patterns and altered herbivore pressures may change the balance of costs and benefits in plant-microbe interactions, potentially influencing species distributions and ecosystem function (Reynolds et al., 2003). Understanding how abiotic stress, biotic stress, and microbial symbiosis interact requires experiments that manipulate all three factors simultaneously, yet such fully factorial studies remain rare outside controlled settings. Here, we address this gap by examining the demographic effects of endophyte symbiosis on three grass host species spanning a natural range-core/range-edge precipitation gradient and in the presence/absence of herbivores.

Symbioses between cool-season grasses and seed-transmitted fungal endophytes (*Epichloë* spp.) provide a powerful experimental model for studying how abiotic and biotic elements of ecological context influence host-symbiont interactions (Clay et al., 2005; Oberhofer et al., 2014; Saikkonen et al., 2010; Schardl et al., 2004). Because vertical transmission links host and symbiont fitness, it is expected to favor the evolution of mutualistic interactions (Gundel et al., 2011, 2024). Environmental conditions, including long-term variation in precipitation, temperature, and herbivore exposure, strongly influence both the prevalence of *Epichloë* infection and the benefits conferred to hosts (Clay et al., 2005; Fowler et al., 2025; Rudgers et al., 2016). For example, grasses hosting *Epichloë* endophytes often outperform endophyte-free individuals under water limitation, though the magnitude of these benefits depends on both host and symbiont identity (Decunta et al., 2021). A key benefit of *Epichloë* symbiosis is the production of fungal alkaloids that deter herbivores or reduce herbivore performance, thereby mediating plant-herbivore interactions (Crawford et al., 2010; Saikkonen et al., 2010). Fungal

alkaloids may also modify host osmotic balance in ways that promote water use efficiency (Decunta et al., 2021). Endophytes may impose costs on their hosts, including the carbon resources required to sustain the fungus and reduced growth or reproduction when fungal demands exceed host resource supply (Bennett and Groten, 2022). Finally, *Epichloë* endophyte effects can differ across host vital rates, which makes it important to consider multiple vital rates in assessing costs and benefits: for example, symbiosis may not improve survival under stress, but can still enhance growth and reproduction (Rudgers et al., 2012; Yule et al., 2013).

We established experimental gardens of three species of native cool-season grasses with and without fungal endophytes across an aridity gradient in the south-central United States to investigate how symbiosis affects multiple host vital rates under varying abiotic and biotic stress. At each of seven sites along the aridity gradient, we manipulated vertebrate and invertebrate herbivory (allowing herbivore access versus exclusion) to test its interaction with abiotic stress. We asked whether endophyte symbiosis is beneficial for host grasses, whether benefits are amplified under abiotic and/or biotic stress as predicted by the stress-gradient hypothesis (SGH), and how these stressors interact to shape demographic outcomes. We evaluated four alternative hypotheses (Fig. 1):

1. Context-independent mutualism: Endophytes confer consistent positive effects on host demography across environmental conditions (Fig. 1a).
2. Herbivory-dependent effects: Endophyte benefits are greater under herbivore exposure than under herbivore exclusion, independent of the abiotic environment, consistent with a defensive role of fungal alkaloids (Fig. 1b).
3. Climate-dependent effects: Endophyte benefits decline with increasing precipitation, such that symbiont effects are more positive under arid than wet conditions, independent of herbivore exposure (Fig. 1c).
4. Herbivory- climate-dependent effects: The effect of endophyte symbiosis depends on the joint influence of herbivory and precipitation, such that herbivory amplifies endophyte benefits under more arid conditions (Fig. 1d).

Finally, to supplement the geographically-distributed field experiment and isolate the causal role of climatic factors, we used a greenhouse experiment with one host species to assess the influence of edaphic factors that co-vary with precipitation across experimental sites.

Materials and methods

Study system

Our study focused on three cool-season perennial grass species native to woodland, savanna, and grassland habitats of eastern North America: *Agrostis hyemalis*, *Elymus virginicus*, and *Poa autumnalis* (Poaceae, subfamily Pooideae) (Shaw, 2011). *A. hyemalis* is a short-lived perennial that germinates from autumn to late winter and, in our Texas study region, typically flowers between April and June. *E. virginicus* is a larger, longer-lived species that flowers throughout spring and summer. *P. autumnalis* has a similar growth form to *E. virginicus* and flowers in late spring. *A. hyemalis* hosts the endophyte *Epichloë amarillans* (White Jr, 1994), *E. virginicus* hosts *Epichloë elymi* (Liu, 2023), and *P. autumnalis* hosts *Epichloë* PauTG-1 or *E. poae* (Gundel et al., 2020). Previous studies of these associations have generally found beneficial effects on host performance, although effects can vary among host species, vital rates, and environmental conditions (Davitt et al., 2011; Gundel et al., 2020; Yule et al., 2013). Like other *Epichloë* species, these endophytes are primarily transmitted vertically through seeds but some are additionally capable of horizontal transmission via sexual stroma on inflorescences or asexual conidia on leaf surfaces (Clay and Schardl, 2002; Gundel et al., 2020; Leuchtman et al., 2014). In our study, *stromata* were never observed on *E. virginicus* or *Poa autumnalis* and were rarely observed on *A. hyemalis* (<5% of individuals), suggesting a dominant role of vertical transmission. Herbivory in this system is primarily from deer, generalist insects (aphids, grasshoppers), and small mammalian grazers.

Source populations and symbiont removal

Plants used in our experiment were derived from 11 natural source populations located throughout the ranges of the focal species (Fig. 2, Table S1). Seeds from these source populations (collected from ca. 30 individuals per population) were either heat-treated to remove endophytes or left untreated (control), intended to produce lineages of symbiont-free (S-) and symbiotic (S+) plants from the same genetic background. For *E. virginicus* and *P. autumnalis*, heat-treated seeds were placed in a drying oven at 60°C for five days. For *A. hyemalis*, seeds were heat-treated in a water bath at 60°C for 12 minutes. For all but two populations, the S- plants used in our experiment were reared through one or more generations following heat treatment, which minimized the confounding potential of direct physiological effects of heating seeds (Table S2). Seeds from control and heat-treated lineages were surface-sterilized with a 10% bleach solution. Seedlings were transferred to potting soil

and maintained in the Rice University greenhouse at 65–85 °C and ambient photoperiod. Once plants were sufficiently large, they were vegetatively propagated to generate the required sample sizes, with clonal identities tracked across individuals. We refer to each independently derived source individual (i.e., from a single seed) and its vegetatively propagated descendants as a “genotype”, such that all clones of the same source individual represent the same genetic background of host and symbiont. The experiment included 840, 840, and 720 plants of *A. hyemalis*, *E. virginicus*, and *P. autumnalis*, respectively, with half assigned to each endophyte status (S+ and S–), from three, four, and four source populations, respectively. The breakdown of these aggregate totals among source populations, genotypes, and clonal replicates per genotype is reported in Table S1. Endophyte status of all plants was verified prior to field transplant using microscopy and immunoblot assays (see Supplementary Methods).

Common garden experimental design and climate data

We established common garden experiments with S+ and S– hosts at seven sites along an aridity gradient from Louisiana to central Texas, US (Fig. 2, Table S3). From west to east, mean annual precipitation increases more than three-fold across these sites while mean annual temperature is relatively consistent, based on climate data collected during the same period as our demographic surveys (Fig. 2d, Fig. S1). For this reason, we focus on precipitation as the primary abiotic factor that varied across sites. This geographic gradient overlaps and exceeds the natural range edges of our focal species, ensuring exposure to realistic climatic and biotic conditions (Fig. 2a, b, c).

To characterize climate at these sites during the study period (2023–2025), we collected monthly temperature and precipitation data from PRISM at 800 m resolution (Hart and Bell, 2015). For each site, we calculated mean temperature (°C) and cumulative precipitation (mm) over the interval between transplanting and the corresponding demographic census.

At each of seven sites along the gradient, we established 24 plots (1.5 m × 1.5 m), eight per host species (*P. autumnalis* was planted at six sites, excluding the westernmost site (SON) since it is well outside this species’ natural range: Fig. 2c). Each plot was planted with 15 individuals, with S+ and S– plants assigned to one of four starting endophyte frequencies (80%, 60%, 40%, or 20% S+; corresponding to 12:3, 9:6, 6:9, or 3:12 S+:S– plants per plot, respectively). Within each site, each plot was randomly assigned to either herbivore access or herbivore exclusion (Fig. 2e). The herbivory treatment targeted both vertebrate and invertebrate herbivores: exclusion plots had deer fencing on four sides and were sprayed with Sevin insecticide (active ingredient Zeta-Cypermethrin) 2-3 times per growing season following the manufacturer’s protocol; herbivore access plots were unsprayed and fenced on two sides to control for any fence effect.

Greenhouse-raised plants were planted into the field experiment in February–March 2023. For each species at each site, we planted a total of 60 S+ and 60 S– plants, half of those experiencing herbivore access and half experiencing herbivore exclusion. Each plot was planted with 15 individuals, a mix of S+ and S– plants to create variation in initial endophyte prevalence (not further considered here).¹ Clonal replicates were arranged such that all plots had the same genetic diversity (number of genotypes) for each species. Plots at the two westernmost sites (KER and SON) were destroyed by deer soon after planting in 2023 and subsequently replanted in 2024 with stronger fencing. Because demographic responses were calculated between consecutive censuses, observations from replanted plots were treated as new $t-t+1$ demographic intervals. We also repeated the analyses excluding KER and SON to assess whether the disturbance and subsequent replanting influenced our results.

Demographic data collection

We collected demographic data, including survival, growth, and reproduction, during the flowering season of each species: *Agrostis hyemalis* and *Poa autumnalis* were censused in May, and *Elymus virginicus* was censused in June of 2023, 2024, and 2025. For each individual, survival was recorded as alive or dead and, for surviving plants, size was measured as the number of tillers. For surviving plants, growth was quantified as the log ratio of tiller count between consecutive censuses (i.e., $\log(\text{tiller} * t + 1 / \text{tiller} * t)$). We recorded the number of inflorescences per plant for all species and, for reproducing individuals of *Poa autumnalis* and *Elymus virginicus*, counted spikelets on up to three inflorescences per plant. Spikelet counts were not recorded for *Agrostis hyemalis* because its inflorescences contain numerous, very small spikelets that are difficult to count reliably in the field. Spikelets were counted directly on the selected inflorescences in the field.² In *A. hyemalis*, one spikelet yields one seed, whereas in *P. autumnalis* and *E. virginicus*, a single spikelet can produce 2–6 seeds.

We measured herbivore damage to assess the effects of symbiont status and herbivore exclusion treatment on realized herbivory. For each individual at each census, we counted the number of tillers with any signs of herbivore (leaf chewing or clipped tillers) and quantified the proportion of total tillers with herbivore damage. We also binned plants as damaged/undamaged based on the presence/absence of any damaged tillers, and tallied the proportion of damaged plants by plot, site, and herbivore treatment.

¹This is redundant with the previous paragraph, though I suggest keeping “not further considered here” in either place.

²I don’t remember which review comment this was, but this sentence seems weird and I suggest cutting it.

Statistical modeling

To assess how abiotic and biotic stress modify the demographic effects of endophyte symbiosis, we fit generalized linear mixed models for each vital rate response in a hierarchical Bayesian statistical framework. All models shared the same hierarchical structure for their expected values and were applied to survival, growth, and fertility (inflorescence count and, for two species, spikelet count per inflorescence). Survival was modeled with a Bernoulli distribution, growth with a Gaussian distribution, inflorescence count with a negative binomial hurdle model, and spikelet count with a negative binomial distribution. For inflorescence count, we compared hurdle and zero-inflated negative binomial mixture models. Predictive performance was nearly identical between models based on leave-one-out cross-validation ($\Delta\text{ELPD} = 0.2$, $\text{SE} = 3.1$). We retained the hurdle model because it explicitly distinguishes whether a plant produced any inflorescences and, conditional on flowering, how many inflorescences it produced.

All models included species-specific fixed effects for symbiosis (S+ or S-), site- and year-specific precipitation (cumulative rainfall [mm] over 12 months preceding the census), and herbivory (herbivore access/exclusion), including all two- and three-way interactions. We considered models with linear and quadratic forms for the influence of precipitation, to account for the possibility of non-monotonic responses. Although we evaluated quadratic models, model selection criteria (LOOCV) showed that they provided minimal improvement over first-order regression models (Table S4). Therefore, all subsequent analyses used the first-order (linear) effect of precipitation (Eq. 1), which captures the observed patterns while maintaining model simplicity. For each vital rate model, the expected value for the i^{th} observation (μ_i) was given by:

$$\begin{aligned}\mu_i = & \beta_0[Sp_i] + \beta_P[Sp_i] * precip_i + \beta_E[Sp_i] * symb_i + \beta_H[Sp_i] * herb_i \\ & + \beta_{EP}[Sp_i] * symb_i * precip_i + \beta_{HP}[Sp_i] * herb_i * precip_i \\ & + \beta_{HE}[Sp_i] * herb_i * symb_i + \beta_{HEP}[Sp_i] * symb_i * herb_i * precip_i \\ & + \phi_{\text{site}[i], Sp_i} + \omega_{\text{source}[i]} + \rho_{\text{plot}[i]}\end{aligned}\tag{1}$$

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_{\text{site}[i], Sp_i} & \sim N(0, \sigma_{\text{site}}^2) \\ \rho_{\text{plot}[i]} & \sim N(0, \sigma_{\text{plot}}^2) \\ \omega_{\text{source}[i]} & \sim N(0, \sigma_{\text{source}}^2)\end{aligned}$$

Here, $precip_i$ is realized annual precipitation for a given site and year, $symb_i$ indicates symbiote presence ($symb_i = 1$) or absence ($symb_i = 0$), and $herb_i$ indicates fencing treatment: herbivore access ($herb_i = 0$) or exclusion ($herb_i = 1$). The model includes random effects accounting for background variation at multiple hierarchical levels: $\phi_{\text{site}[i], Sp_i}$ captures site-to-site heterogeneity that is not explained by precipitation, $\rho_{\text{plot}[i]}$ captures plot-to-plot

variation within sites, and $\omega_{\text{source}[i]}$ captures variation associated with the provenance of transplants (the latter two are unique to species and therefore not indexed by species). Random effects for site, plot, and source are host species-specific but the variance parameters (σ_{site} , σ_{source} , σ_{plot}) are shared across species; this assumes, for example, that site-to-site heterogeneity is of a similar magnitude across species, even as the model allows for “better” and “worse” sites to differ by species. This hierarchical structure allows the model to “borrow strength” across species (Gelman and Hill, 2007), improving estimates of fixed effects while still capturing species-specific responses to the environmental gradient.

All models were implemented in R (R Core Team, 2023) using Stan via the `rstan` interface (Stan Development Team, 2024). Models were fit using four Markov chains with 3,000 iterations each, including a burn-in period of 1,000 warm-up iterations, which was sufficient to ensure convergence. Fixed effects were assigned weakly informative normal priors. Random effects were modeled with zero-mean normal distributions with diffuse variance priors. Full details on priors and model settings are provided in the accompanying code. We confirmed that models effectively captured key aspects of the grass demography data, including means, standard deviations, and quantiles using posterior predictive checks (Fig. S2).

We used posterior probability distributions of the parameter estimates to visualize predictions for how effects of symbiosis varied across abiotic and biotic contexts. For each herbivory treatment (Access or Exclusion), we computed posterior predictions for the vital rates of S+ and S− hosts across the precipitation gradient (Eq. 1). From these predictions, we calculated the difference for each posterior sample ($\Delta = \mu^+ - \mu^-$) to estimate median effects and 90% credible intervals. We then computed the posterior probability that $\Delta > 0$, which quantifies the probability that endophytes enhance performance, given the model and data. For instance, a high posterior probability (e.g., $\Pr(\Delta > 0) > 0.9$) indicates strong evidence of an endophyte benefit, whereas a low posterior probability (e.g., $\Pr(\Delta > 0) < 0.1$) indicates strong evidence of an endophyte cost. Intermediate probabilities (approximately 0.7–0.9 or 0.1–0.3) indicate moderate evidence for positive or negative effects, respectively, whereas probabilities near 0.5 indicate no evidence for a directional effect.

Greenhouse experiment

We used site variation to capture an aridity gradient, but other abiotic factors, especially edaphic conditions, covary across sites. In particular, the two westernmost sites (KER and SON; Fig. 2) are not only the driest but also occur on the Edwards Plateau of central Texas, with distinct limestone soils. If edaphic variation rather than precipitation drives the symbiont $\times$ precipitation interaction observed in the field, we would expect the interaction to persist

in the greenhouse, where soils from contrasting sites are brought into a common climate. Conversely, if the field pattern reflects a genuine climate-mediated effect of the symbiosis, the interaction should disappear when plants are decoupled from the climate of their soil's origin. To distinguish between these alternatives, we conducted a greenhouse experiment using *A. hyemalis* and soils collected from each field site, crossing symbiont status (S+/S-) with soil origin (seven sites; Fig. 2d; Table S1; Supplementary Methods S.1.2). Using data on biomass and inflorescence production in the greenhouse, we fitted similar hierarchical Bayesian models as the field analysis, with symbiont status, soil-origin precipitation (30-year normal, standardised), and their interaction as fixed effects (Supplementary Methods S.1.2.3). Posterior predictive checks showed good agreement between the observed data and data simulated from the posterior distributions, indicating that the models adequately captured the main features of the observed biomass and inflorescence production data (Fig. S3).

Results

Efficacy of aridity and herbivory treatments

During the study period, realized precipitation at seven experimental sites corresponded well to 30-year climate normals, with wetter eastern sites and drier western sites (Fig. 2d). Virtually all host vital rates for all species declined with increasing aridity (see below), indicating that our geographically-distributed experiment effectively captured an abiotic stress gradient. Additionally, herbivore access/exclusion effectively modified biotic stress: plants in herbivore-access plots experienced 24% tiller damage on average, compared to 14% in exclusion plots (Fig. 2F; Fig. S4; Fig. S5). S+ hosts experienced less herbivore damage than S- hosts in *P. autumnalis* (13% vs. 18%), but not in *A. hyemalis* (19% vs. 15%) or *E. virginicus* (44% vs. 42%; Fig. S6).³ Excluding the two westernmost sites (KER and SON), where plots were destroyed by deer and subsequently replanted in 2024, did not qualitatively alter the estimated endophyte effects or our main conclusions (Fig. S7, Table S6).⁴

³I flagged this in the response letter too but I think this is not a good representation of the actual results, which show S+ POAU and AGHY as having less damage than S- (stronger in POAU), and S+ ELVI having more damage than S-. I am also confused by the percentages here and not sure what they refer too. In your %damaged figures the bars are not broken out by S+/S-.

⁴I think this is not the right place for this because readers do not know what "endophyte effects" you are referring to, and they don't know what our "main conclusions" are.

Endophyte effects on host fitness components across abiotic and biotic stress gradients

Annual survival was greater overall and more positively responsive to precipitation for the longer-lived hosts *E. virginicus* and *P. autumnalis* compared to the shorter-lived *A. hyemalis* (Fig. 3). Endophyte effects on survival depended most strongly on precipitation in *E. virginicus*. Under herbivore exclusion, effects of endophytes on survival shifted from strongly negative under dry conditions ($\Delta = -0.13$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.02$) to positive under wetter conditions ($\Delta = 0.12$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.97$). Under herbivore access the same directional shift occurred but with weaker magnitude ($\Delta = -0.06$ to 0.10 , $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.10$ – 0.89). A similar but weaker directional shift occurred in *A. hyemalis* under both herbivory treatments. For the host *P. autumnalis*, survival was strongly responsive to climate variation but there was no evidence that symbionts modified the response to climate stress, and there was little difference between herbivory treatments (Fig. 5, Fig. 3).

For growth, endophyte benefits increased with precipitation in *A. hyemalis* and *E. virginicus* under herbivore access, with strong positive effects of symbiosis under the wettest conditions (*A. hyemalis*: $\Delta = 0.49$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.99$; *E. virginicus*: $\Delta = 0.32$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.97$; Fig. 4). Under herbivore exclusion, *A. hyemalis* showed a similar positive trend but with weaker support ($\Delta = 0.29$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.90$), while *E. virginicus* showed little variation across the gradient ($\Delta = 0.09$ – 0.10 , $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.60$ – 0.75). For both *A. hyemalis* and *E. virginicus*, endophyte effects on growth were most beneficial under wetter abiotic conditions and herbivore access (Fig. 4a–d). As for survival, *P. autumnalis* growth rates declined strongly under drier conditions but endophyte effects were weak and highly uncertain (Fig. 5). Under herbivore exclusion, endophyte effects on *P. autumnalis* growth shifted from weakly positive to negative with increasing precipitation ($\Delta = -0.22$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.13$), the only vital rate response that was even directionally consistent with drought-protective benefits of symbiosis.

For inflorescence production, endophyte effects were strongly positive in *P. autumnalis* and increased with precipitation under both herbivory treatments (Fig. S9).⁵ Under herbivore access, effects ranged from weak under drier conditions ($\Delta = 0.02$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.68$) to strongly positive under wetter conditions ($\Delta = 2.91$, $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.99$). Under herbivore exclusion, benefits were consistently strong across the gradient ($\Delta = 0.19$ – 4.97 , $\text{Pr}(\Delta > 0) = 0.97$ – 0.99). In contrast, endophyte effects on inflorescence production were weaker and highly uncertain across the gradient in the hosts *A. hyemalis* and *E. virginicus* under both herbivory treatments (Fig. S9; Fig. 5). Similarly, spikelet production in *E. virginicus* and *P. autumnalis* was strongly

⁵I am wondering why this is in the supplement. Did we hit the figure limit? It's a cool result that endophytes promote growth in survival but not reproduction in two species, and the inverse in the third species.

climate-sensitive, but there was no strong evidence of endophyte effects on spikelet production across abiotic or biotic contexts (Fig. S10; Table S10).

Figure 5 synthesizes statistical confidence in endophyte effects across host species, vital rates, and abiotic and biotic stress gradients. The broad trend that emerged was a shift from negative or neutral endophyte effects under drier conditions to more positive effects under wetter conditions. These patterns were largely consistent with the hypothesis that abiotic (climate) stress is the dominant modifier of endophyte effects (Hypothesis 3; Fig. 1c), but in the opposite direction than predicted, as endophyte benefits tended to increase rather than decrease with precipitation. Partial support emerged for herbivory and combined effects of herbivory and climate as symbiosis modifiers (Hypotheses 2 and 4; Fig. 1b,d), depending on species and fitness component. Herbivory played a secondary role for most species and vital rates. Herbivore exclusion generally dampened the growth benefits that hosts gained from endophytes, consistent with an anti-herbivore protective role of *Epichloë* endophytes. However, the role of herbivory as a modifier of endophyte effects on other species and vital rates were more idiosyncratic.

Greenhouse experiment: soil legacy effects do not mediate endophyte responses

In the greenhouse experiment with *A. hyemalis* growing on soils from each experimental site, fitness components responded strongly to soil-origin precipitation even under uniform conditions: plants grown in soils from wetter sites produced greater aboveground biomass and more inflorescences than those from drier-origin soils (Figs. 6a–d), confirming that soil properties co-vary with the field aridity gradient.⁶ However, the symbiont $\times$ soil-origin precipitation interaction was negligible for both aboveground biomass (median = 0.01, 95% CI: -0.39–0.43, $P(>0) = 0.52$) and inflorescence count (median = 0.19, 95% CI: -0.39–0.72, $P(>0) = 0.76$; Fig. 6e). The absence of this interaction when plants are decoupled from their soil's source climate suggests that the symbiont $\times$ precipitation pattern observed in the field reflects a climate-mediated effect rather than a consequence of co-varying edaphic conditions.⁷

Discussion

Drawing on three years of field experiments and Bayesian analysis of host demography, we evaluated how biotic and abiotic stressors jointly influence the demographic effects of

⁶I am curious if this is also true if you drop out KER and SON. I am wondering if it's just the limestone soil they don't like, or if there is a climate signal even without those sites.

⁷In the figure, I don't understand the color coding. Why is the SxP parameter a different color than the others?

vertically transmitted *Epichloë* endophytes on three cool-season perennial grasses across a natural climatic gradient. We predicted that endophytes would enhance host fitness under aridity and/or herbivore pressure (Fig. 1), consistent with stress amelioration and defense scenarios. Endophyte benefits were strongest under benign, mesic conditions and weakened as abiotic stress increased, contrary to the classic SGH prediction. Herbivory effects were inconsistent across species and fitness components, although the strongest effects were in the predicted direction, with herbivore exclusion dampening endophyte benefits. These results suggest that symbiosis benefits may depend on host condition⁸ and stress severity, consistent with SGH extensions in which positive interactions weaken under sufficiently severe stress (Kawai and Tokeshi, 2007; Le Roux and McGeoch, 2010; Michalet, 2007).⁹

Endophyte presence is often assumed to enhance host performance under unfavorable environmental conditions, with meta-analyses reporting increased growth, reproduction, and survival across grass–*Epichloë* systems (Decunta et al., 2021). However, our results show that these benefits decline with increasing aridity. The mechanisms underlying this pattern remain uncertain, but several non-exclusive processes may contribute. Reduced water availability may limit the host’s capacity to benefit from the symbiosis through constrained nutrient uptake, reduced carbon gain, or drought-induced hormonal shifts that impair endophyte function or alter the cost–benefit balance of the interaction (Ahlholm et al., 2002; Bastías et al., 2024; Bronstein, 2001; Cui et al., 2022; Faeth, 2002). This interpretation is consistent with the microbial mitigation–exacerbation continuum (David et al., 2018), which predicts that symbionts shift from beneficial to costly as environmental stress exceeds the host’s capacity to sustain the interaction¹⁰, and with empirical patterns along precipitation gradients in other grass–*Epichloë* systems (Kannadan and Rudgers, 2008). Because vertically transmitted endophytes are not readily expelled once established, symbiotic hosts may be unable to avoid elevated costs when conditions deteriorate, in contrast to more flexible mutualisms (Afkhami and Rudgers, 2009).¹¹

⁸I know what you mean here - endo effects were weaker or negative where baseline host fitness was low - but I think this idea needs to be more fully explained because we have not presented any data on host “condition”. But it’s an important point to make more directly: plants get the most benefit from symbionts under conditions where the hosts are already doing well without the symbiont.

⁹I think this is good, but this is where these “SGH extensions” need to be better developed in the Introduction, because I don’t think readers will know what you are talking about.

¹⁰This is the study I referenced in the Introduction, and I think it would be good to highlight there along with other “SGH extensions”.

¹¹I think this paragraph is great, but it leaves a pretty significant question unanswered: how do we reconcile our results with previous meta-analyses showing that endophytes usually promote drought stress? Your explanation makes sense that symbionts may become too costly under stress, but why then is there so much evidence for endophyte advantage under stress? I don’t think we can answer that but I do think it is worth some speculation, or at least a statement that we need further studies to understand why sometimes stress strengthens the mutualism and other times it weakens it, even among closely related host-symbiont systems.

While all host species experienced reductions in demographic performance with increasing aridity, host identity strongly modulated the climate-dependence of endophyte effects, with species showing divergent responses across the precipitation gradient. *P. autumnalis* maintained strong reproductive benefits regardless of climate¹², indicating relative buffering against abiotic stress¹³, but weaker endophyte effects on survival and growth. In contrast, *A. hyemalis* and *E. virginicus* showed pronounced climate-dependent survival and growth responses, consistent with greater sensitivity to water limitation¹⁴ near their arid range edges. These contrasts may reflect differences in host physiological tolerance, symbiont identity, or the ecological contexts in which each species evolved (Decunta et al., 2021), and highlight the importance of host identity in determining the net outcome of grass–endophyte symbioses under climate stress (Cheplick and Faeth, 2009).¹⁵

Herbivore exclusion consistently dampened endophyte benefits for growth across species, consistent with an anti-herbivore protective role of *Epichloë* endophytes that is reinforced under natural herbivore pressure (Clay, 1988; Decunta et al., 2021). Effects of herbivory on survival and reproduction were more idiosyncratic, varying across species and precipitation contexts, suggesting that the consequences of hosting a symbiont are not uniformly mediated by herbivore pressure across fitness components. Endophytes reduced herbivory damage in *A. hyemalis* and *P. autumnalis*, consistent with alkaloid-mediated defense, but increased damage in *E. virginicus* (Fig. S6), possibly because endophyte-symbiotic plants were more vigorous and therefore more attractive to herbivores. These species-specific responses may reflect differences among endophytes in alkaloid identity and potency (Siegel et al., 1990), together with host condition. Endophyte effects on herbivory are therefore unlikely to be a fixed symbiont trait, and their demographic consequences may depend on both endophyte chemistry and the environmental currency limiting each fitness component.

The greenhouse experiment suggests that the endophyte–climate interaction observed in the field is more strongly linked to the direct physiological effects of water availability on the host than to soil properties that co-vary with aridity. When plants were grown in soils originating from contrasting sites under a common watering regime, the symbiont × soil-origin precipitation interaction was negligible for both aboveground biomass and

¹²This is inconsistent with the Results section, which states: For inflorescence production, endophyte effects were strongly positive in *P. autumnalis* and increased with precipitation under both herbivory treatments.

¹³I don't know what you mean by this.

¹⁴Sensitivity of *what*? I think we need to be careful to distinguish baseline host responses to climate from endophyte effects being responsive to climate.

¹⁵I think this is also a place to re-emphasize the importance of considering multiple host vital rates, since POAU seems to get most endophyte benefits from endophytes via fertility while ELVI gets the most benefit through growth and survival, and AGHY has a little of both.

inflorescence production (Van der Putten et al., 2013).¹⁶ These results provide little evidence that soil-origin differences associated with aridity are the primary drivers of the field patterns, although the experiment did not directly isolate the effects of individual soil properties. This decoupling instead supports the interpretation that endophyte costs and benefits depend primarily on contemporaneous water availability rather than on historical soil conditions associated with site aridity.¹⁷ Notably, plants originating from the driest sites performed poorly even under favorable watering conditions, suggesting that climatic and edaphic stressors may jointly constrain performance at range margins, while the endophyte component of this response is more directly linked to host physiological responses to water availability.

The¹⁸ degree of host control over symbiont retention may be an underappreciated axis shaping mutualism outcomes along environmental gradients (Bronstein, 2001). Because *Epichloë* endophytes are tightly integrated with host reproduction, hosts may continue to bear symbiont-associated costs even when conditions reduce net benefits, unless imperfect transmission gradually lowers infection frequency across generations¹⁹. If such costs persist, endophyte prevalence could decline toward the dry end of environmental gradients (Semmartin et al., 2015). We did not assess endophyte presence at the end of the experiment, so we cannot directly test symbiont retention; nevertheless, our results suggest that the stress-gradient hypothesis may require additional nuance for symbioses in which hosts have limited flexibility to regulate symbiont load under stress (David et al., 2018). Historical and comparative evidence further suggests that environmental change can reshape symbiont prevalence and host–symbiont associations across diverse systems, including the breakdown of coral–algal symbioses during marine heat stress (Hoeksema and Bruna, 2000)²⁰ and shifts in endophyte prevalence across grass populations over recent climate change (Fowler et al., 2025; Li et al., 2026). If endophyte-associated costs reduce host or symbiont fitness under dry conditions, they could ultimately contribute to lower endophyte prevalence toward the dry end of environmental gradients.²¹ This possibility remains to be tested directly by examining endophyte prevalence

¹⁶While this did not come up in review, I would be more cautious here, because if you look at Figure S8, the endo-climate interaction is also negligible for most species and vital rates. As a side note, Fig S8 is labeled with “endophyte”, and I think one of the reviewers asked to change all figures to stay consistent with “symbiont”.

¹⁷Yes, and it may also be worth pointing out that the field experiment did not rely solely on spatial variation in climate, but also year to year climate variation within sites.

¹⁸There are a lot of ideas in this paragraph and I think it needs clearer structure, and probably to be broken out into two, more cohesive paragraphs. You start here with the idea of “retention”, which is not defined or explained, and end with host range shifts.

¹⁹I think this point needs to be made more explicit: hosts cannot ‘escape’ symbionts within a generation (unless there is some mechanism of hosts killing off detrimental symbionts that has not been discovered yet), whereas symbionts can be eliminated between generation when transmission is imperfect (which I also think you need to explain and cite).

²⁰Can you find a more recent citation for this. A lot has happened in coral symbiosis biology since 2000. Also, that’s a review of mutualisms generally, seems like a poor citation choice for this statement.

²¹T

and transmission across environmental gradients. This seems redundant with the sentence “If such costs persist”. Conversely, whether endophytes expand or constrain host ranges²² may depend on which environmental factors establish range margins. Endophytes may promote range expansion when their benefits offset the factor limiting host performance, but may provide little benefit when the limiting factor is severe resource stress that cannot be alleviated by the symbiosis. Together, these possibilities suggest that the consequences of climate change for grass–endophyte associations will depend not only on whether endophytes persist, but also on where their demographic benefits remain sufficient to promote host persistence.

²²I don’t understand why “conversely”, or how we got to range expansion or contraction. I think the logic here needs to be spelled out more clearly. Seems like it may be worth a stand-alone paragraph on the implications of these results for host range edges, if you want to go there.

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Figures

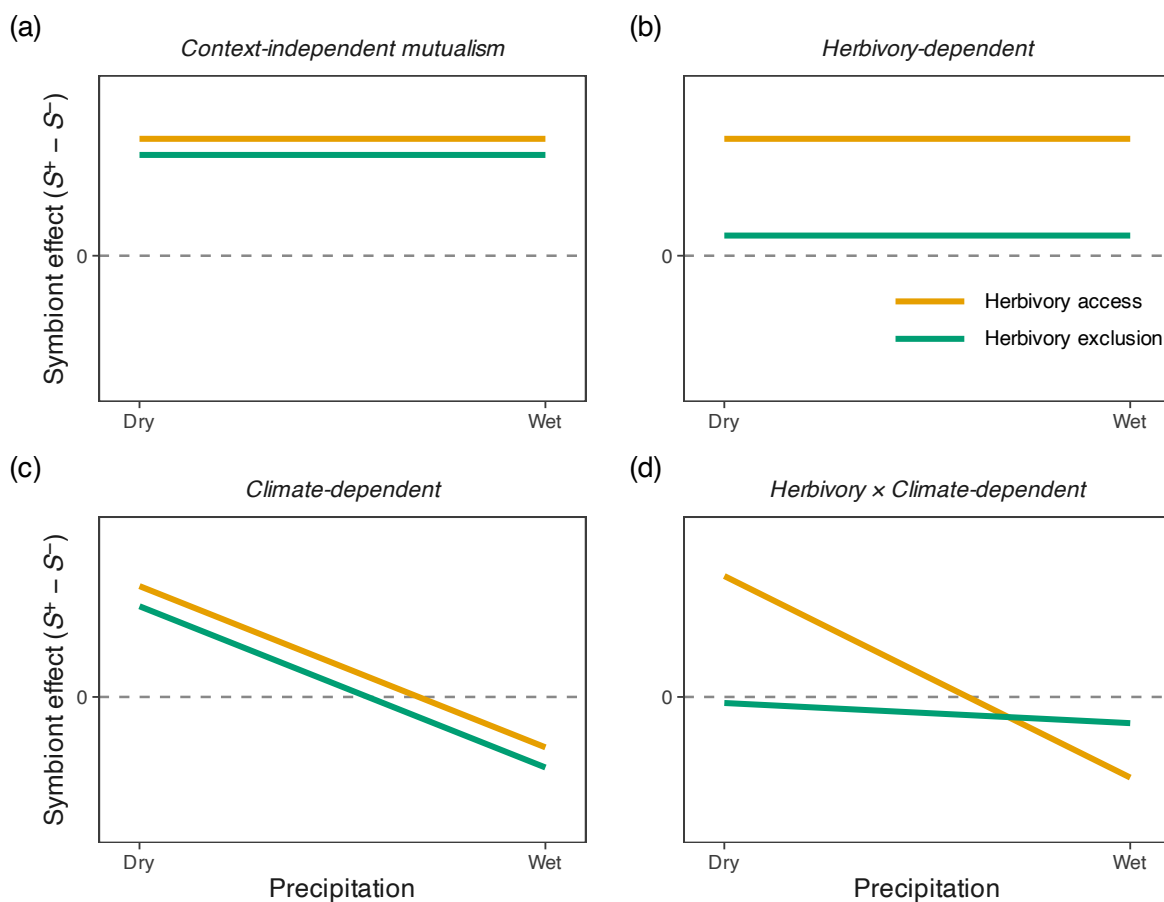


Figure 1: Competing hypotheses for how plant–symbiont interactions vary along a precipitation gradient under contrasting herbivory regimes. Positive values for the demographic contrast of $S^+ - S^-$ indicate beneficial effect+ and negative values indicate costly effects of symbionts. (a) Context-independent mutualism, where symbiont effects remain constant across environmental conditions and herbivory treatments. (b) Herbivory-dependent interactions, where the effect of symbionts differs in magnitude between herbivory access and exclusion but is insensitive to climate. (c) Climate-dependent interactions, where symbiont effects shift systematically along the precipitation gradient, independent of herbivory. (d) Combined herbivory- and climate-dependent interactions, where both environmental context and biotic pressure jointly shape symbiont effects, resulting in non-parallel and potentially decoupled response trajectories. Together, these scenarios illustrate alternative hypotheses for how symbiotic interaction outcomes may vary across abiotic and biotic stress gradients.

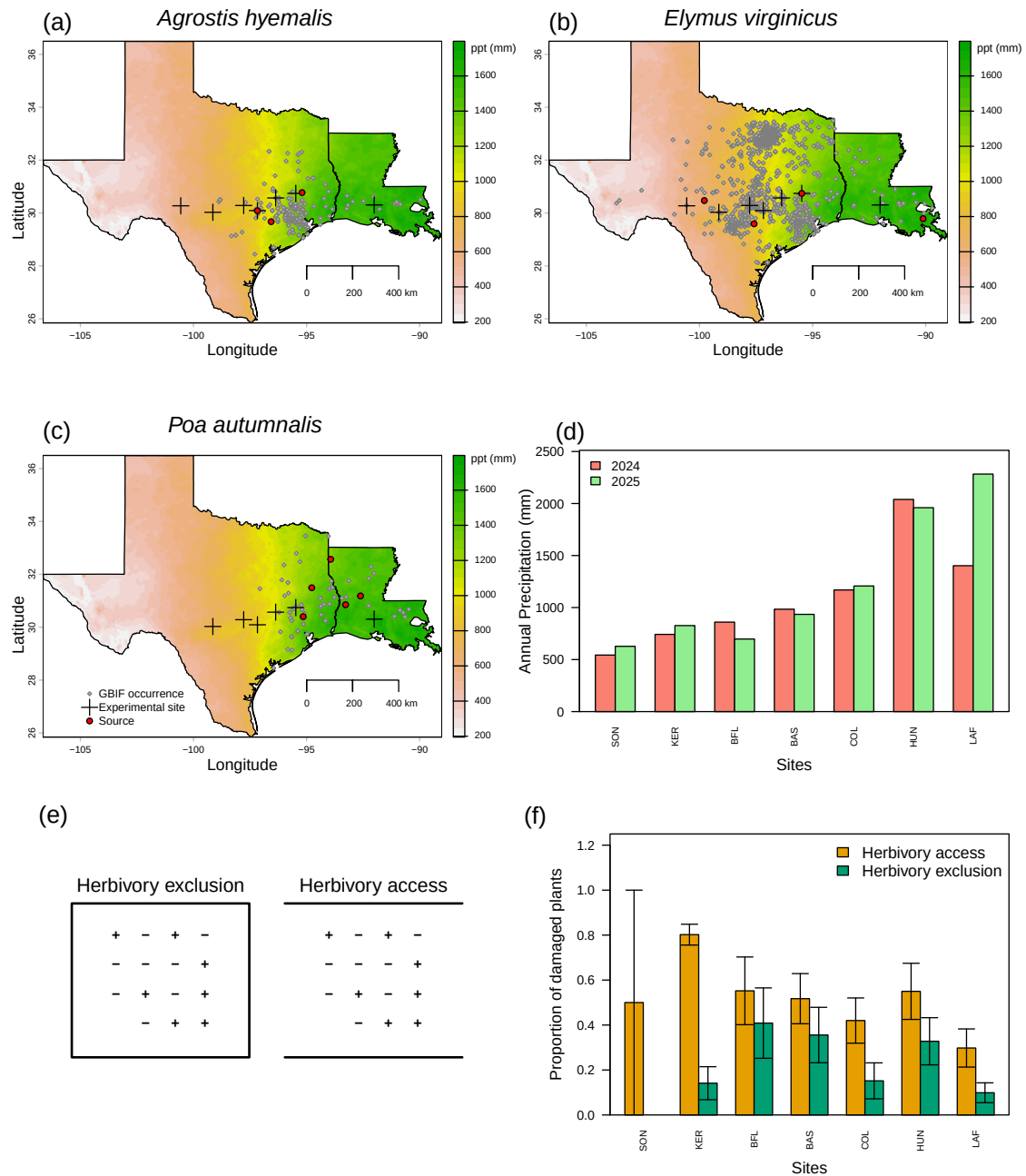


Figure 2: Geography of common garden sites along a natural aridity gradient from Texas to Louisiana, USA for (A) *Agrostis hyemalis*, (B) *Elymus virginicus*, and (C) *Poa autumnalis*. Climate data in A–C are based on 30-year normals for average annual precipitation (1996–2025) from PRISM (Hart and Bell, 2015), illustrating the precipitation gradient across experimental sites (scale bar in mm). Red dots indicate source population locations; grey dots represent GBIF occurrence records within the study area (GBIF, 2025a,b,c). (D) Annual cumulative precipitation during census years (2024 and 2025) at each experimental site, ordered west to east, derived from PRISM climate data. (E) Schematic illustration of herbivore exclusion and herbivore access plots; ‘+’ denotes symbiont-positive and ‘-’ denotes symbiont-negative individuals. Equal numbers are shown for illustration, although symbiont frequencies varied among experimental plots. (F) Proportion of damaged plants in herbivore exclusion and herbivore access plots across experimental sites (mean $\pm$ SE). Species-specific breakdowns are provided in Supplementary Figs S4 and S5.

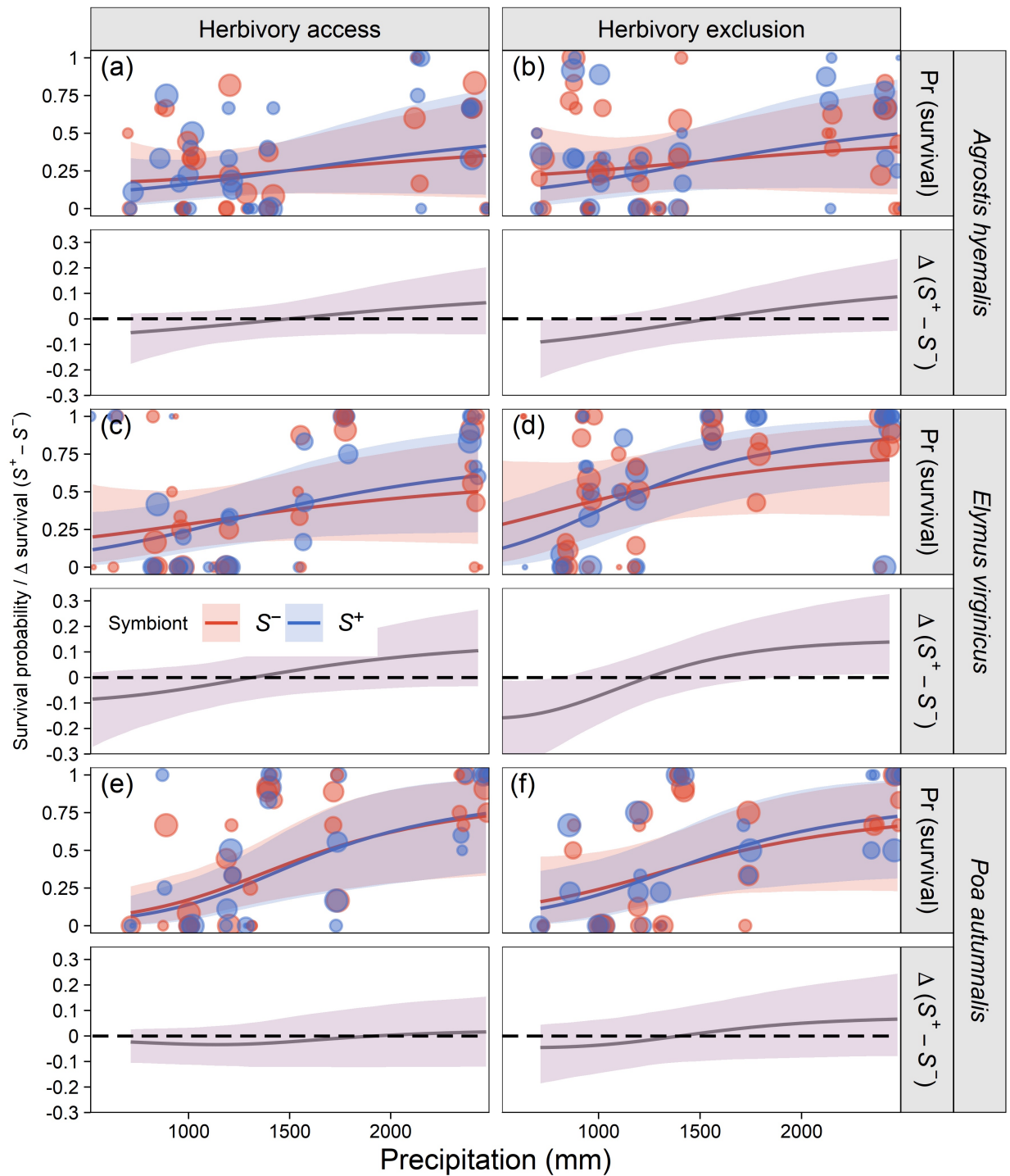


Figure 3: Predicted survival probability (upper panels) and symbiont effect ($\Delta = S^+ - S^-$; lower panels) across the precipitation gradient. Lines and shaded regions show posterior means and 90% credible intervals, respectively. Points indicate observed plot means, with point size proportional to sample size (1–12 individuals per plot per symbiont status). Horizontal dashed line denotes $\Delta = 0$. Panels are arranged by species and herbivory treatment (herbivore access and exclusion).

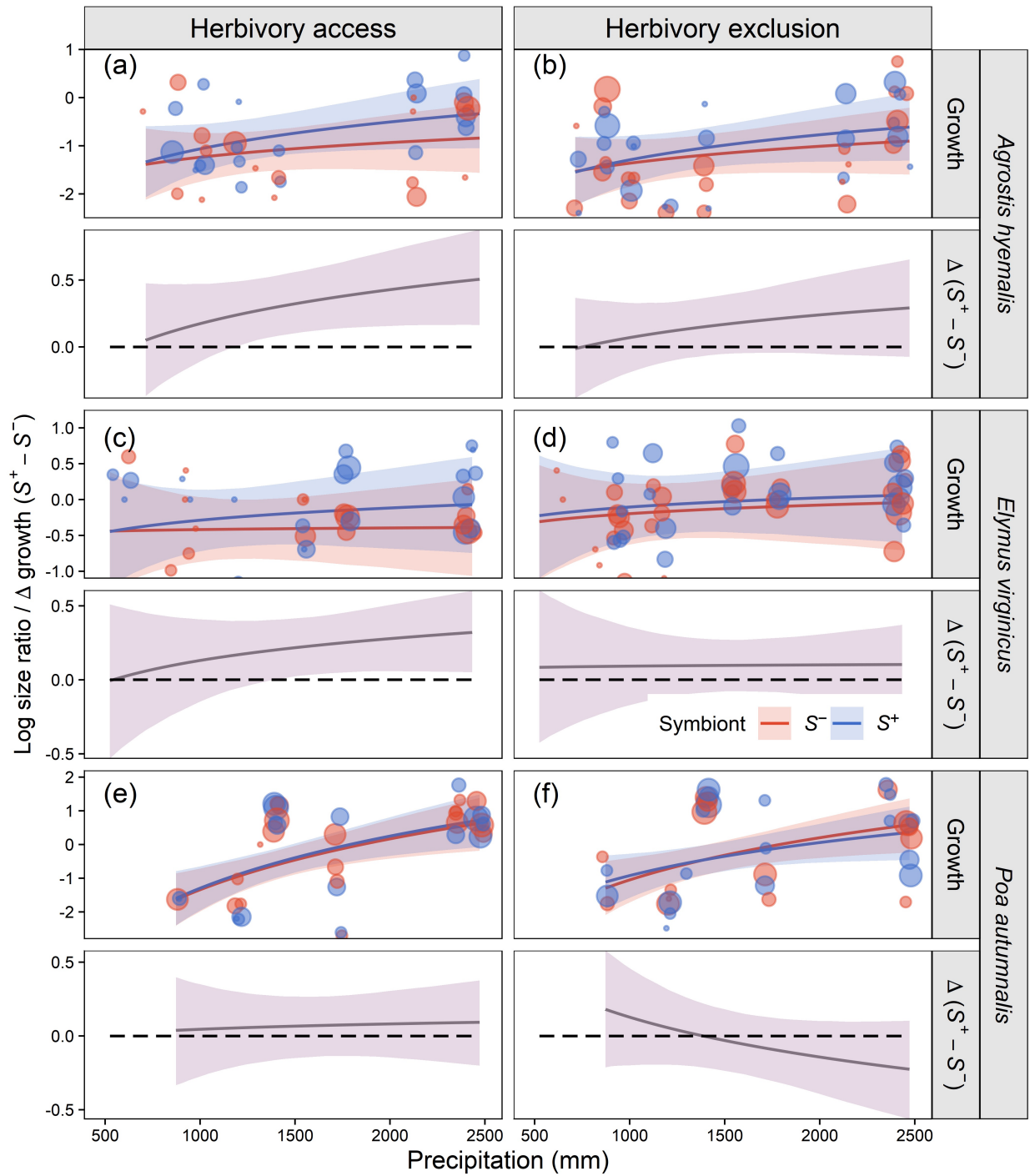


Figure 4: Predicted relative growth rate (upper panels) and symbiont effect ($\Delta = S^+ - S^-$; lower panels) across the precipitation gradient. Lines and shaded regions show posterior means and 90% credible intervals, respectively. Points indicate observed plot means, with point size proportional to sample size (1–12 individuals per plot per symbiont status). Horizontal dashed line denotes $\Delta = 0$. Panels are arranged by species and herbivory treatment (herbivore access and exclusion).

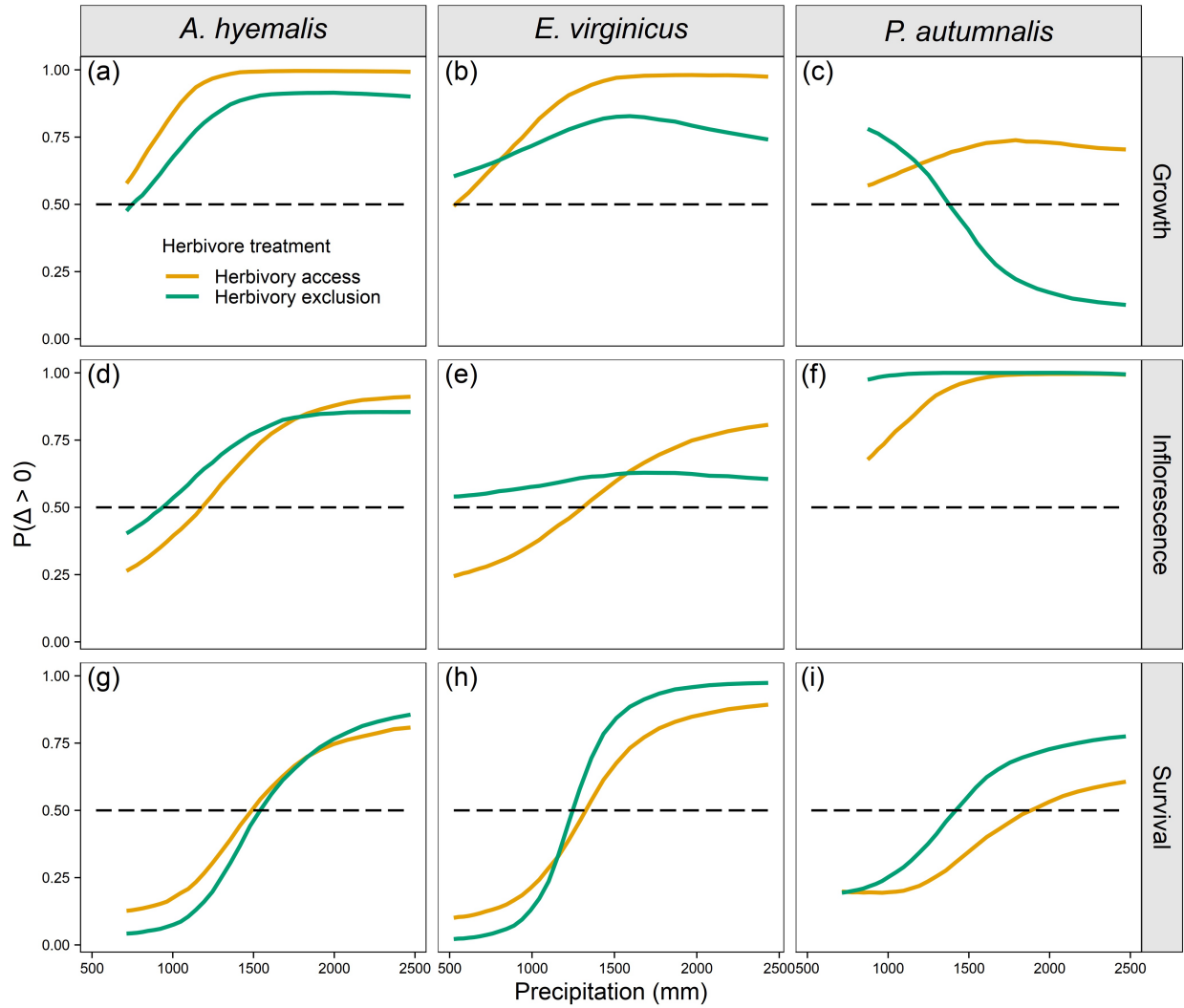


Figure 5: Probabilities of positive endophyte effects on survival, growth, and inflorescence production across precipitation gradients and under herbivore access or exclusion for *A. hyemalis*, *E. virginicus*, and *P. autumnalis*. Panels show the probability that the difference in vital rates between S+ and S- hosts is positive ($\Pr[\Delta > 0]$). Values closer to 1.0 indicate high confidence in an S+ advantage, values closer to 0.0 indicate high confidence in an S- advantage, and values close to 0.5 indicate no difference between S+ and S-.

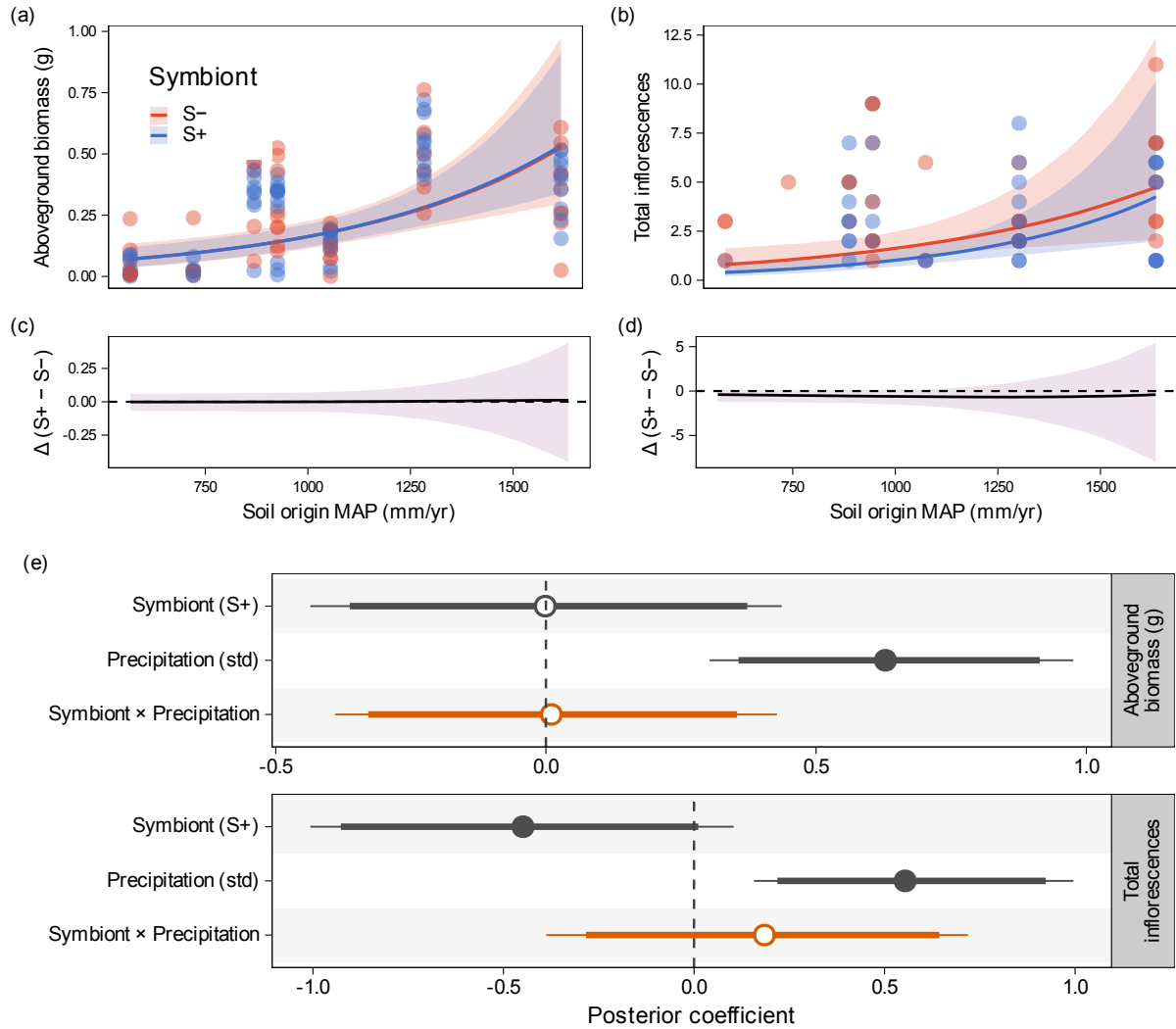


Figure 6: Greenhouse experiment testing whether soil-origin precipitation modifies symbiont effects on host performance in *Agrostis hyemalis*. Left and middle columns show posterior predictions for aboveground biomass and total inflorescence production across the 30-year mean annual precipitation of the soil-origin site (mm yr^{-1}) for symbiont-present (S+) and symbiont-absent (S-) plants. Points are observed values, lines are posterior medians, and shaded ribbons are 95% credible intervals. Lower panels show the posterior contrast between symbiont treatments ($\Delta = S+ - S-$). The right column shows posterior coefficient estimates (median $\pm$ 90% and 95% credible intervals) for symbiont presence, precipitation, and their interaction. Precipitation strongly increased performance, whereas the Symbiont $\times$ Precipitation interaction was weak.

S.1 Supporting Information

S.1.1 Supporting Methods

S.1.1.1 Endophyte status verification

To assess the efficacy of heat treatment and to confirm endophyte status before transfer to the field experiment, we verified symbiont status (S+ or S-) of plants from control and heat lineages using three methods. First, peels of the inner leaf sheaths were stained with aniline blue lactic acid and viewed under a compound microscope at 200x–400x to identify *Epichloë* hyphae (Jackson and Johnson-Cicalese, 1988). Second, we used microscopy to assess the presence or absence of *Epichloë* in seeds that were soaked in NaOH, then squashed and stained similarly to the leaf tissue, to determine the endophyte status of the maternal plant (Fowler et al., 2025). Third, we used an immunoblot assay (Phytoscreen field tiller endophyte detection kit, Agrinostics Ltd. Co., Watkinsville, Georgia, USA) that targets proteins of *Epichloë* spp. to visually indicate presence or absence (Koh et al., 2006). In total, we tested 1,481 plants for endophyte status. In cases where two or more methods were used on the same plants ($N = 253$), there was 99.2% agreement between methods. For genotypes that were vegetatively propagated, we tested the endophyte status of a single clonal replicate and assume that its status applied equally to all clones.

All S-plants used in the experiment came from heated-treated lineages, while S+ plants came from both control and heat lineages depending on the efficacy of the removal treatment. While heat treatment was effective at reducing endophyte prevalence relative to controls, our confidence that individual S-plants were experimentally disinfected, as opposed to naturally symbiont-free, varied due to among-population variation in endophyte prevalence (mean: 68% S+) and the effectiveness of the heat treatment (Table S2). For example, for the SJC population of *A. hyemalis*, control and heat lineages yielded plants that were 100% and 5% S+, respectively – giving us high confidence that S-plants are derived from successful symbiont removal. For the SFAEF population of *P. autumnalis*, on the other hand, control and heat lineages yielded plants that were 35% and 26% S+, respectively – meaning that these S-plants were quite likely from naturally S-lineages.

S.1.2 Greenhouse experiment

S.1.2.1 Experimental design

To examine whether edaphic factors mediate plant performance across the precipitation gradient, we conducted a greenhouse experiment manipulating soil origin and endophyte status.

Soils were collected during summer 2024 from the seven field sites used in the range-limits experiment. These sites span the precipitation gradient from the wettest site to the driest site. After collection, soils were stored in a cold room at 3.3°C until the start of the experiment. Soils were not sterilized and therefore soil origin treatment reflects both the physical properties of the soil as well as the microbial communities that may vary across soil types.

Seeds of *Agrostis hyemalis* were obtained from the seed stock used to generate plants in the range-limits field experiment. Seeds originated from two source populations (LPEF and SJC) and were grouped according to endophyte status as endophyte-symbiotic (S+) or endophyte-free (S-). Seeds were germinated on agar plates (18.2 g agar per 1000 mL deionized water) in a growth chamber and subsequently transplanted as seedlings into pots containing soils from each field site. Plants were randomly assigned to greenhouse trays and maintained under controlled greenhouse conditions with automated irrigation. The experimental design crossed seed source population, endophyte status, and soil origin. Realised sample sizes varied across treatment combinations due to mortality and poor germination and are reported in Table S5.

S.1.2.2 Data collection

Plants were monitored regularly for survival and reproductive development. Reproductive output was quantified as inflorescence number and spikelet production. During the flowering season, plants were checked at least twice per week for the presence of seed-bearing inflorescences. Mature inflorescences were collected as they developed to avoid repeated counts. For each flowering individual, spikelets were counted on at least three inflorescences when available. For individuals producing many inflorescences, mean spikelet number per inflorescence was used to estimate total spikelet production. After eight months of growth, plants were harvested to quantify aboveground biomass. Plant material was dried at 60°C in a drying oven and weighed using an analytical balance. Because inflorescences were collected prior to harvest, they were dried separately and added to the total aboveground biomass.

S.1.2.3 Statistical analysis

For each fitness component (aboveground biomass, inflorescence count, and spikelets per inflorescence), we fitted hierarchical Bayesian models mirroring the field analysis. Fixed effects included symbiont status (S+/S-), the 30-year mean annual precipitation of each soil's origin site (standardised; hereafter soil-origin MAP), and their interaction, with planting date (standardised) as a covariate. Source population was included as a random effect with a non-centred parameterisation. Biomass was log-transformed and modelled with a Student-t likelihood ($\nu = 3$) to provide robustness to outliers, which are common in small greenhouse

experiments; count responses (inflorescence number and spikelets per inflorescence) used negative binomial likelihoods to accommodate overdispersion. For all models, fixed-effect coefficients received Normal(0,1) priors; the overdispersion parameter for count models was placed on the log scale with a Normal(2,1) prior (centred on $\phi \approx 7$); and the random-effect standard deviation received an Exponential(2) prior.

Models were fitted in Stan (Stan Development Team, 2024) with four chains of 2,000 iterations (1,000 warmup; `adapt_delta = 0.99`). Convergence was assessed via $\hat{R} < 1.01$ for all parameters and inspection of trace plots. We report posterior medians with 95% credible intervals for three focal parameters: the symbiont main effect (S+ vs. S- at mean soil-origin MAP), the soil-origin MAP main effect, and the symbiont $\times$ soil-origin MAP interaction. To visualise how the endophyte effect varies across the soil-origin precipitation gradient, we computed the posterior contrast (S+ - S-) at each point along the observed precipitation range, marginalising over planting date (set to the mean) and source population random effects. These contrasts are summarised as posterior medians with 95% credible intervals and displayed alongside the predicted responses for each symbiont status. Posterior predictive checks indicated adequate fit for all models (Fig. S3).

Species	Population	Latitude	Longitude	Notes	Total plants	Unique genotypes	Mean clones per genotype
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	SJC	30.771969	-95.200620	Private property, San Jacinto County, TX	273	201	1.36
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	COHR	29.672833	-96.567517	Roadside collection, Columbus, TX	289	35	8.26
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	LPEF	30.085383	-97.172508	Stengl Lost Pines Field Station, Bastrop, TX	278	41	6.78
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA7	30.849660	-93.276772	Roadside population, Deer Ridder, LA	91	9	10.11
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA1	32.568125	-93.932976	Walter P. Jacobs Nature Center, Shreveport, LA	129	7	18.43
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA2	31.183040	-92.616969	Kistachie National Forest, LA	253	15	16.87
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	SFAEF	31.492158	-94.772200	Stephen F. Austin Experimental Forest, TX	247	41	6.02
<i>E. virginicus</i>	HUNT	30.741797	-95.474508	Pineywoods Environmental Research Laboratory, Huntsville, TX	91	61	1.49
<i>E. virginicus</i>	RL5	30.471717	-99.783803	Llano River Field Station, Junction, TX	131	91	1.44
<i>E. virginicus</i>	PALM	29.591623	-97.584781	Palmetto State Park, TX	442	195	2.27
<i>E. virginicus</i>	JLP	29.785105	-90.114933	Jean Lafitte Park, LA	176	102	1.73

Table S1: Geographic coordinates and descriptions of source populations for study species. For each source population, the table shows the total number of plants included in the experiment, the number of unique genotypes, and the average clonal replication per genotype.

Table S2: Summary of symbiont removal treatments by species and population. N indicates the number of plants tested for symbiont status and %S+ indicates the proportion that tested positive. Treatment refers to the symbiont removal treatment applied to the seed lineage: Control (no treatment) or Heat (5 days in a drying oven at 60°C for *E. virginicus* and *P. autumnalis*; 12 minutes in a 60°C water bath for *A. hyemalis*). For all populations except SFAEF and PALM, heat-treated seed lineages were one or more generations removed from the treatment; for those two populations, plants from heat-treated seeds were used directly in the experiment.

Species	Population	Treatment	N	%S+
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	COHR	Control	84	0.92
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	COHR	Heat	75	0.04
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	LPEF	Control	7	0.57
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	LPEF	Heat	88	0.00
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	SJC	Control	132	1.00
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	SJC	Heat	191	0.05
<i>E. virginicus</i>	HUNT	Control	71	0.61
<i>E. virginicus</i>	HUNT	Heat	38	0.21
<i>E. virginicus</i>	JLP	Control	27	1.00
<i>E. virginicus</i>	JLP	Heat	113	0.02
<i>E. virginicus</i>	PALM	Control	176	0.61
<i>E. virginicus</i>	PALM	Heat	238	0.71
<i>E. virginicus</i>	RL5	Control	68	0.43
<i>E. virginicus</i>	RL5	Heat	74	0.73
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA1	Control	5	0.20
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA1	Heat	4	0.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA2	Control	10	0.80
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA2	Heat	3	0.33
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA7	Control	5	1.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	LA7	Heat	11	0.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	SFAEF	Control	23	0.35
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	SFAEF	Heat	38	0.26

Table S3: Common garden sites used for reciprocal transplant and environmental manipulation studies.

Site	Code	Latitude	Longitude
University of Louisiana Ecology Center	LAF	30.304773	-92.012401
Center for Biological Field Studies	HUN	30.742815	-95.476881
TAMU Ecology and Natural Resource Teaching Area	COL	30.569302	-96.366324
UT Stengl Lost Pines Field Station	BAS	30.092343	-97.172442
Private property, Kerrville, TX	KER	30.028437	-99.142888
Brackenridge Field Laboratory	BFL	30.284866	-97.780675
TAMU Sonora Station	SON	30.273467	-100.561463

Table S4: Comparison of candidate models (quadratic vs. linear) for each vital rate based on leave-one-out cross-validation (LOO-CV). ΔELPD is relative to the best model.

Vital rate	Model type	ΔELPD	SE
Survival	Linear	0.000	0.000
Survival	Quadratic	-0.282	0.663
Growth	Linear	0.000	0.000
Growth	Quadratic	-0.078	0.430
Inflorescence	Linear	0.000	0.000
Inflorescence	Quadratic	-0.689	0.516
Spikelet	Linear	0.000	0.000
Spikelet	Quadratic	-0.332	0.579

Table S5: Sample sizes for each combination of seed source population, soil-origin site, and endophyte treatment in the greenhouse experiment. The experiment crossed two seed source populations (LPEF and SJC), seven soil-origin sites along the precipitation gradient, and two symbiont treatments (S– and S+). Most treatment combinations included seven replicates, except LPEF $\times$ BFL $\times$ S– where $n=6$ due to early mortality.

Response	Site	S–	S+
<i>Biomass</i>			
	LAF	14	14
	SON	14	14
	KER	14	14
	BFL	13	14
	BAS	14	14
	COL	14	14
	HUN	14	14
<i>Inflorescence</i>			
	LAF	14	14
	SON	14	14
	KER	14	14
	BFL	14	14
	BAS	14	14
	COL	14	14
	HUN	14	14
<i>Spikelets</i>			
	LAF	7	10
	SON	3	1
	KER	1	0
	BFL	3	8
	BAS	7	6
	COL	2	2
	HUN	5	12

Table S6: Sensitivity of estimated endophyte effects to exclusion of sites KER and SON, which were destroyed by deer and subsequently replanted in 2024. For each combination of vital rate (Trait), species, herbivory treatment (Access = herbivory-access plots, Exclusion = herbivore-exclusion plots), and precipitation level (Low, Median, or High, evaluated at the 10th, 50th, and 90th percentiles of each species' observed precipitation range, given in the Precip. column in mm), the table reports the posterior median and 90% credible interval [Med. Δ (90% CI)] and the posterior probability of a positive endophyte effect [$P(\Delta > 0)$] for the full dataset and for the dataset excluding KER and SON. The endophyte effect Δ is defined as $\Pr(S+) - \Pr(S-)$ for survival, or the analogous difference on the response scale ($S+ - S-$) for growth, inflorescence production, and spikelet production. Spikelet production was not modeled for *A. hyemalis* because spikelets in this species were too numerous and small to count reliably (see Methods). Posterior estimates were nearly identical between the full dataset and the dataset excluding KER and SON across all species, vital rates, and herbivory treatments, indicating that the disturbance and replanting at these two sites did not meaningfully influence our conclusions.

Trait	Species	Herbivory	Precip.	Full data		Excl. KER/SON	
				Med. Δ (90% CI)	$P(\Delta > 0)$	Med. Δ (90% CI)	$P(\Delta > 0)$
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	0.49 [0.16, 0.88]	0.99	0.50 [0.16, 0.88]	0.99
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Low (714 mm)	0.05 [-0.37, 0.47]	0.58	0.02 [-0.40, 0.44]	0.53
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Median (1300 mm)	0.27 [0.05, 0.51]	0.98	0.25 [0.03, 0.50]	0.97
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	0.29 [-0.07, 0.65]	0.90	0.29 [-0.09, 0.65]	0.90
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (714 mm)	-0.01 [-0.38, 0.37]	0.48	-0.01 [-0.39, 0.38]	0.49
Growth	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1300 mm)	0.14 [-0.08, 0.35]	0.85	0.13 [-0.09, 0.35]	0.84
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	High (2433 mm)	0.32 [0.05, 0.60]	0.97	0.33 [0.06, 0.62]	0.98
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Low (633 mm)	0.04 [-0.41, 0.47]	0.56	-0.03 [-0.49, 0.44]	0.46
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Median (1213 mm)	0.17 [-0.05, 0.40]	0.90	0.15 [-0.09, 0.38]	0.85
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	High (2433 mm)	0.10 [-0.16, 0.37]	0.74	0.10 [-0.16, 0.37]	0.73
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Low (633 mm)	0.09 [-0.34, 0.53]	0.63	0.08 [-0.37, 0.52]	0.62
Growth	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Median (1213 mm)	0.10 [-0.11, 0.30]	0.78	0.09 [-0.12, 0.30]	0.77
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	0.10 [-0.20, 0.38]	0.70	0.11 [-0.19, 0.39]	0.74
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Low (873 mm)	0.04 [-0.33, 0.40]	0.57	0.02 [-0.36, 0.39]	0.53
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Median (1443 mm)	0.07 [-0.16, 0.27]	0.70	0.06 [-0.16, 0.26]	0.69
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	-0.22 [-0.56, 0.10]	0.13	-0.23 [-0.56, 0.10]	0.13

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Table S6 – continued from previous page

Trait	Species	Herbivory Precip.		Full data		Excl. KER/SON	
				Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)	Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (873 mm)	0.17 [-0.21, 0.58]	0.78	0.18 [-0.21, 0.59]	0.77
Growth	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1443 mm)	-0.02 [-0.22, 0.20]	0.45	-0.02 [-0.23, 0.20]	0.45
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	1.44 [-0.21, 6.22]	0.92	1.47 [-0.14, 6.27]	0.93
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Low (714 mm)	-0.09 [-0.59, 0.18]	0.25	-0.09 [-0.60, 0.17]	0.23
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Median (1300 mm)	0.06 [-0.45, 0.62]	0.59	0.05 [-0.42, 0.58]	0.58
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	1.66 [-0.69, 7.73]	0.88	1.70 [-0.68, 8.07]	0.88
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (714 mm)	-0.07 [-0.74, 0.49]	0.38	-0.06 [-0.72, 0.49]	0.40
Inflorescence	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1300 mm)	0.20 [-0.47, 1.05]	0.71	0.20 [-0.46, 1.01]	0.71
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	High (2433 mm)	0.27 [-0.25, 1.44]	0.82	0.31 [-0.25, 1.50]	0.83
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Low (633 mm)	-0.09 [-0.58, 0.17]	0.25	-0.08 [-0.55, 0.14]	0.22
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Median (1213 mm)	-0.01 [-0.33, 0.26]	0.46	-0.03 [-0.32, 0.24]	0.43
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	High (2433 mm)	0.15 [-0.91, 1.62]	0.63	0.15 [-0.96, 1.73]	0.63
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Low (633 mm)	0.03 [-0.81, 1.06]	0.53	0.01 [-0.74, 1.02]	0.52
Inflorescence	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Median (1213 mm)	0.07 [-0.49, 0.72]	0.59	0.06 [-0.48, 0.71]	0.58
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	2.95 [0.56, 11.20]	0.99	2.87 [0.52, 12.25]	0.99
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Low (873 mm)	0.01 [-0.07, 0.20]	0.66	0.01 [-0.07, 0.21]	0.65
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Median (1443 mm)	0.26 [0.01, 0.78]	0.96	0.25 [0.01, 0.80]	0.96
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	5.52 [1.19, 21.88]	1.00	5.48 [1.05, 21.92]	1.00
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (873 mm)	0.18 [0.01, 0.89]	0.97	0.19 [0.01, 0.96]	0.97
Inflorescence	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1443 mm)	1.00 [0.36, 2.44]	1.00	1.00 [0.36, 2.52]	1.00
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	High (2433 mm)	0.74 [-3.23, 4.96]	0.62	0.57 [-3.12, 4.57]	0.60
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Low (633 mm)	-2.09 [-8.18, 2.83]	0.24	-0.94 [-8.27, 6.13]	0.41

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Table S6 – continued from previous page

Trait	Species	Herbivory	Precip.	Full data		Excl. KER/SON	
				Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)	Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Median (1213 mm)	-1.00 [-4.53, 2.31]	0.30	-0.19 [-4.01, 3.60]	0.47
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	High (2433 mm)	3.20 [-0.17, 7.60]	0.94	2.96 [-0.25, 6.88]	0.93
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Low (633 mm)	-4.63 [-12.13, 1.94]	0.12	-5.10 [-13.33, 2.20]	0.11
Spikelet	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Median (1213 mm)	-1.12 [-4.49, 2.23]	0.28	-1.12 [-4.60, 2.25]	0.28
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	0.84 [-2.35, 4.34]	0.67	0.78 [-2.25, 4.28]	0.67
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Low (873 mm)	-0.76 [-5.08, 3.35]	0.35	-0.52 [-5.12, 3.90]	0.42
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	Median (1443 mm)	-0.18 [-2.60, 2.28]	0.45	-0.01 [-2.58, 2.58]	0.50
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	3.46 [-0.60, 8.59]	0.92	3.45 [-0.69, 8.42]	0.92
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (873 mm)	2.73 [-2.78, 9.74]	0.81	2.99 [-3.03, 10.46]	0.80
Spikelet	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1443 mm)	3.13 [0.02, 6.92]	0.95	3.28 [0.05, 7.07]	0.95
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	High (2472 mm)	0.06 [-0.06, 0.20]	0.81	0.07 [-0.05, 0.22]	0.84
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Low (714 mm)	-0.04 [-0.18, 0.02]	0.13	-0.05 [-0.18, 0.01]	0.07
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	Median (1300 mm)	-0.01 [-0.08, 0.05]	0.35	-0.02 [-0.09, 0.04]	0.26
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	High (2472 mm)	0.08 [-0.05, 0.24]	0.86	0.08 [-0.05, 0.24]	0.84
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Low (714 mm)	-0.07 [-0.23, -0.00]	0.04	-0.06 [-0.22, -0.00]	0.05
Survival	<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	Median (1300 mm)	-0.03 [-0.11, 0.04]	0.25	-0.03 [-0.10, 0.04]	0.26
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	High (2433 mm)	0.10 [-0.03, 0.27]	0.89	0.12 [0.00, 0.30]	0.95
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Low (633 mm)	-0.06 [-0.23, 0.03]	0.11	-0.05 [-0.21, -0.00]	0.03
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	Median (1213 mm)	-0.01 [-0.10, 0.07]	0.38	-0.03 [-0.11, 0.04]	0.23
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	High (2433 mm)	0.12 [0.01, 0.33]	0.97	0.10 [0.01, 0.31]	0.98
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Low (633 mm)	-0.14 [-0.34, -0.01]	0.03	-0.09 [-0.30, -0.01]	0.02
Survival	<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	Median (1213 mm)	-0.01 [-0.11, 0.09]	0.44	-0.01 [-0.11, 0.09]	0.41

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Table S6 – continued from previous page

Trait	Species	Herbivory Precip.	Full data		Excl. KER/SON	
			Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)	Med. Δ (90% CI)	P($\Delta > 0$)
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access High (2472 mm)	0.01 [-0.12, 0.15]	0.61	0.02 [-0.12, 0.17]	0.65
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access Low (714 mm)	-0.01 [-0.10, 0.03]	0.20	-0.02 [-0.10, 0.01]	0.14
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access Median (1300 mm)	-0.03 [-0.12, 0.05]	0.26	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.04]	0.19
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion High (2472 mm)	0.06 [-0.08, 0.24]	0.78	0.05 [-0.09, 0.24]	0.77
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion Low (714 mm)	-0.03 [-0.19, 0.04]	0.19	-0.02 [-0.17, 0.05]	0.23
Survival	<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion Median (1300 mm)	-0.01 [-0.11, 0.10]	0.41	-0.01 [-0.10, 0.09]	0.44

Table S7: Posterior summaries of Δ ($S+ - S-$) for survival across precipitation quantiles (mm, 5%, 25%, 50%, 75%, 100%) for each species and herbivore treatment. Positive median values indicate beneficial effects of symbionts; negative medians indicate costly effects. $P(\Delta > 0)$ quantifies the strength of evidence: values near 1 indicate strong support for a benefit, values near 0 indicate strong support for a cost, and values near 0.5 indicate little or no consistent effect. Herbivore treatment: Exclusion = herbivores excluded; Access = herbivores had access.

Species	Herbivore treatment	Precipitation	Median Δ	Lower 90%	Upper 90%	$P(\Delta > 0)$
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	714.00	-0.04	-0.18	0.02	0.13
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	963.00	-0.03	-0.12	0.03	0.16
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1300.00	-0.01	-0.08	0.05	0.35
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1832.00	0.02	-0.06	0.12	0.70
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	2472.00	0.06	-0.06	0.20	0.81
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	714.00	-0.07	-0.23	-0.00	0.04
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	963.00	-0.06	-0.17	0.01	0.07
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1300.00	-0.03	-0.11	0.04	0.25
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1832.00	0.03	-0.07	0.14	0.70
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	0.08	-0.05	0.24	0.86
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	525.00	-0.06	-0.27	0.02	0.10
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	760.00	-0.06	-0.20	0.03	0.13
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1101.00	-0.03	-0.12	0.06	0.29
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1680.00	0.04	-0.06	0.15	0.77
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	2433.00	0.10	-0.03	0.27	0.89
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	525.00	-0.13	-0.40	-0.01	0.02
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	760.00	-0.12	-0.29	-0.01	0.04
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1101.00	-0.04	-0.14	0.06	0.24
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1680.00	0.09	-0.02	0.21	0.91
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	2433.00	0.12	0.01	0.33	0.97
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	714.00	-0.01	-0.10	0.03	0.20
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	963.00	-0.03	-0.11	0.03	0.19
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1300.00	-0.03	-0.12	0.05	0.26
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1832.00	-0.00	-0.12	0.11	0.49
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	2472.00	0.01	-0.12	0.15	0.61
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	714.00	-0.03	-0.19	0.04	0.19
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	963.00	-0.03	-0.15	0.06	0.24
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1300.00	-0.01	-0.11	0.10	0.41
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1832.00	0.04	-0.09	0.17	0.70
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	0.06	-0.08	0.24	0.78

Table S8: Posterior summaries of Δ ($S+ - S-$) for growth across precipitation quantiles (mm, 5%, 25%, 50%, 75%, 100%)) for each species and herbivore treatment. Positive median values indicate beneficial effects of symbionts; negative medians indicate costly effects. $P(\Delta > 0)$ quantifies the strength of evidence: values near 1 indicate strong support for a benefit, values near 0 indicate strong support for a cost, and values near 0.5 indicate little or no consistent effect.

Species	Herbivore treatment	Precipitation	Median Δ	Lower 90%	Upper 90%	$P(\Delta > 0)$
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	714.00	0.05	-0.37	0.47	0.58
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	963.00	0.15	-0.14	0.47	0.81
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1300.00	0.27	0.05	0.51	0.98
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1832.00	0.39	0.15	0.66	1.00
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	2472.00	0.49	0.16	0.88	0.99
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	714.00	-0.01	-0.38	0.37	0.48
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	963.00	0.06	-0.21	0.33	0.65
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1300.00	0.14	-0.08	0.35	0.85
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1832.00	0.22	-0.04	0.48	0.91
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	0.29	-0.07	0.65	0.90
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	525.00	-0.00	-0.53	0.51	0.49
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	760.00	0.07	-0.31	0.44	0.64
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1101.00	0.15	-0.10	0.40	0.85
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1680.00	0.24	0.04	0.44	0.98
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	2433.00	0.32	0.05	0.60	0.97
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	525.00	0.09	-0.42	0.61	0.60
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	760.00	0.09	-0.27	0.45	0.65
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1101.00	0.09	-0.14	0.33	0.75
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1680.00	0.10	-0.08	0.28	0.82
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	2433.00	0.10	-0.16	0.37	0.74
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	873.00	0.04	-0.33	0.40	0.57
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1122.00	0.06	-0.23	0.31	0.63
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1443.00	0.07	-0.16	0.27	0.70
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1923.00	0.08	-0.14	0.29	0.73
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	2472.00	0.10	-0.20	0.38	0.70
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	873.00	0.17	-0.21	0.58	0.78
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1122.00	0.08	-0.19	0.37	0.68
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1443.00	-0.02	-0.22	0.20	0.45
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1923.00	-0.13	-0.36	0.11	0.19
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	-0.22	-0.56	0.10	0.13

Table S9: Posterior summaries of Δ ($S+ - S-$) for inflorescence production across precipitation quantiles (mm, 5%, 25%, 50%, 75%, 100%) for each species and herbivore treatment. Positive median values indicate beneficial effects of symbionts; negative medians indicate costly effects. $P(\Delta > 0)$ quantifies the strength of evidence: values near 1 indicate strong support for a benefit, values near 0 indicate strong support for a cost, and values near 0.5 indicate little or no consistent effect.

Species	Herbivore treatment	Precipitation	Median Δ	Lower 90%	Upper 90%	$P(\Delta > 0)$
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	714.00	-0.08	-0.61	0.18	0.26
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	963.00	-0.06	-0.54	0.30	0.37
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1300.00	0.06	-0.44	0.57	0.59
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1832.00	0.46	-0.31	1.85	0.85
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	2472.00	1.30	-0.29	6.06	0.91
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	714.00	-0.06	-0.74	0.54	0.40
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	963.00	0.01	-0.63	0.69	0.51
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1300.00	0.19	-0.50	1.07	0.70
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1832.00	0.67	-0.49	2.62	0.84
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	1.48	-0.95	7.71	0.85
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	525.00	-0.09	-0.67	0.16	0.24
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	760.00	-0.08	-0.48	0.18	0.29
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1101.00	-0.04	-0.35	0.23	0.41
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1680.00	0.07	-0.24	0.48	0.67
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	2433.00	0.25	-0.27	1.36	0.81
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	525.00	0.03	-0.87	1.17	0.54
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	760.00	0.04	-0.68	0.92	0.56
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1101.00	0.07	-0.52	0.74	0.59
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1680.00	0.09	-0.45	0.75	0.63
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	2433.00	0.11	-0.97	1.40	0.60
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	873.00	0.02	-0.07	0.20	0.68
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1122.00	0.07	-0.06	0.38	0.82
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1443.00	0.26	0.01	0.83	0.96
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	1923.00	0.98	0.24	2.89	0.99
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Access	2472.00	2.91	0.48	11.89	0.99
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	873.00	0.19	0.02	1.00	0.97
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1122.00	0.44	0.10	1.42	1.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1443.00	0.97	0.35	2.44	1.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	1923.00	2.37	0.75	6.35	1.00
<i>P. autumnalis</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	4.97	0.91	19.92	0.99

Table S10: Posterior summaries of Δ ($S^+ - S^-$) for spikelet production across precipitation quantiles (mm, 5%, 25%, 50%, 75%, 100%) for each species and herbivore treatment. Positive median values indicate beneficial effects of symbionts; negative medians indicate costly effects. $P(\Delta > 0)$ quantifies the strength of evidence: values near 1 indicate strong support for a benefit, values near 0 indicate strong support for a cost, and values near 0.5 indicate little or no consistent effect.

Species	Herbivore treatment	Precipitation	Median Δ	Lower 90%	Upper 90%	$P(\Delta > 0)$
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	525.00	-2.33	-9.38	3.12	0.23
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	760.00	-1.84	-7.08	2.69	0.24
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1101.00	-1.19	-4.99	2.31	0.28
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	1680.00	-0.27	-3.26	2.81	0.44
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Access	2433.00	0.74	-3.23	4.96	0.62
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	525.00	-5.51	-14.68	1.98	0.11
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	760.00	-3.70	-9.87	1.93	0.14
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1101.00	-1.69	-5.49	2.03	0.23
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	1680.00	0.83	-1.56	3.36	0.71
<i>A. hyemalis</i>	Exclusion	2433.00	3.20	-0.17	7.60	0.94
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	873.00	-0.76	-5.08	3.35	0.35
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1122.00	-0.52	-3.80	2.75	0.38
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1443.00	-0.18	-2.60	2.28	0.45
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	1923.00	0.31	-1.88	2.57	0.59
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Access	2472.00	0.84	-2.35	4.34	0.67
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	873.00	2.73	-2.78	9.74	0.81
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1122.00	2.96	-1.31	8.23	0.88
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1443.00	3.13	0.02	6.92	0.95
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	1923.00	3.35	0.62	6.84	0.98
<i>E. virginicus</i>	Exclusion	2472.00	3.46	-0.60	8.59	0.92

Model	Parameter	Median	Lower 95%	Upper 95%	P(>0)
Biomass (Gaussian)	Symbiont status (S+)	-0.001	-0.436	0.436	0.498
Biomass (Gaussian)	Symbiont status (S+) $\times$ Precipitation	0.010	-0.390	0.428	0.517
Inflo count (NB)	Symbiont status (S+)	-0.449	-1.007	0.104	0.054
Inflo count (NB)	Symbiont status (S+) $\times$ Precipitation	0.185	-0.388	0.719	0.757
Total spikelets projected (NB)	Symbiont status (S+)	-0.158	-0.550	0.233	0.208
Total spikelets projected (NB)	Symbiont status (S+) $\times$ Precipitation	-0.130	-0.459	0.184	0.214

Table S11: Posterior summaries of the interaction between endophyte presence (S+) and source population (Site) for each fitness component. For each model, the table reports the median estimate, 95% credible interval (Lower and Upper), and the posterior probability that the effect is greater than zero ($P(>0)$).

714 **S.1.3 Supporting Figures**

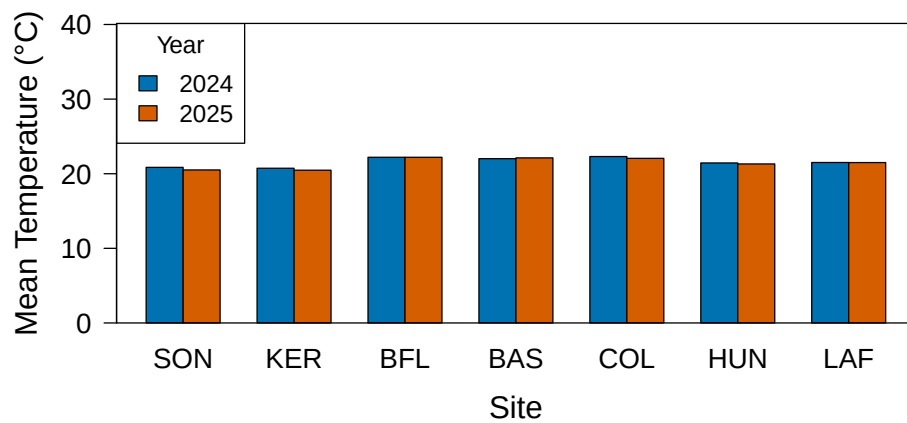


Fig S1: Annual temperature (°C) during the 2024 and 2025 census years. Sites are arranged west to east by longitude.

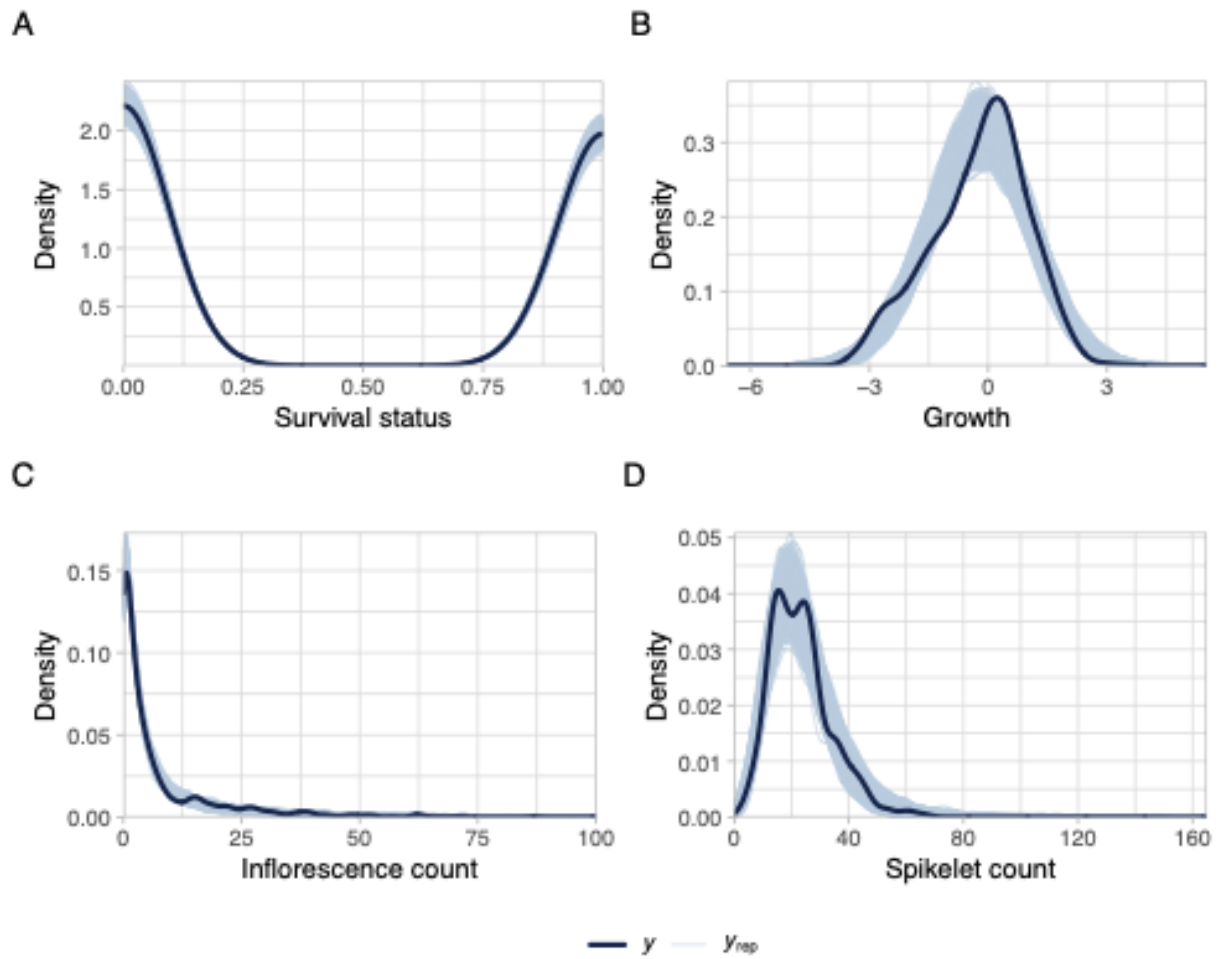


Fig S2: Posterior predictive checks for each vital rate. Dark blue lines show observed data (y) and light blue lines show replicated datasets from posterior predictions (y_{rep}). Strong overlap across survival, growth, inflorescence, and spikelet production indicates adequate model fit for all vital rates.

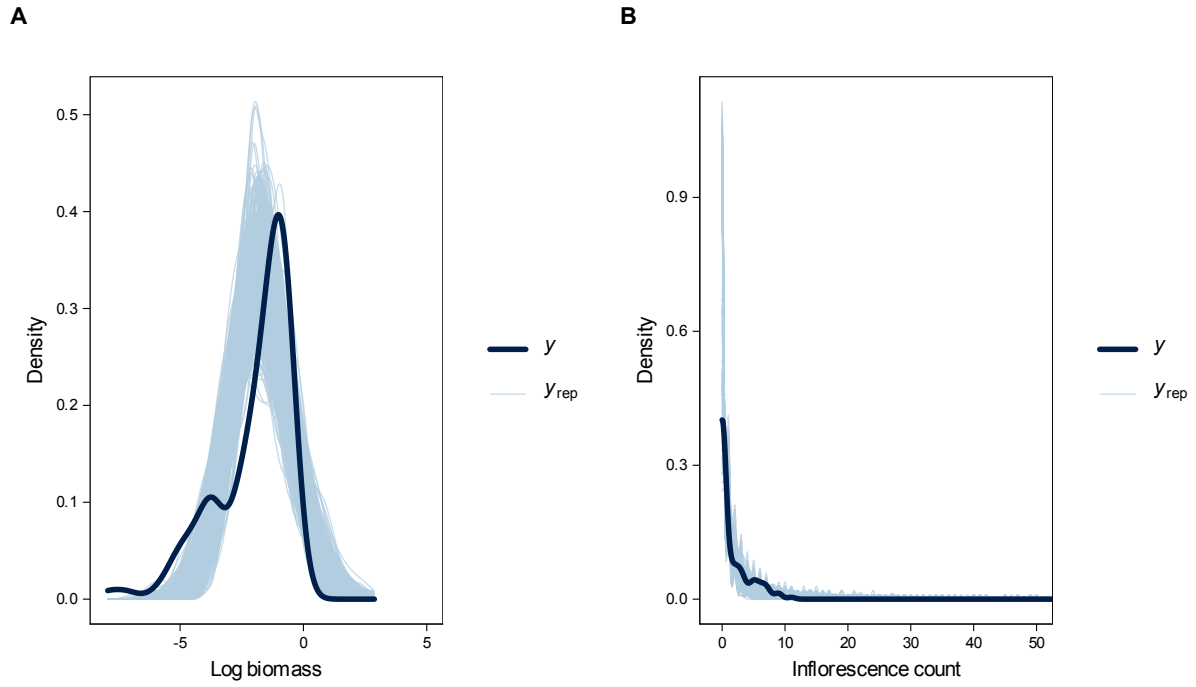


Fig S3: Posterior predictive checks for Bayesian models of plant performance in the greenhouse experiment. Density overlays show observed data (solid line) and 200 posterior predictive draws (shaded lines) for (A) aboveground biomass, (B) inflorescence count per plant. Models adequately capture the distribution of observed data across all response variables.

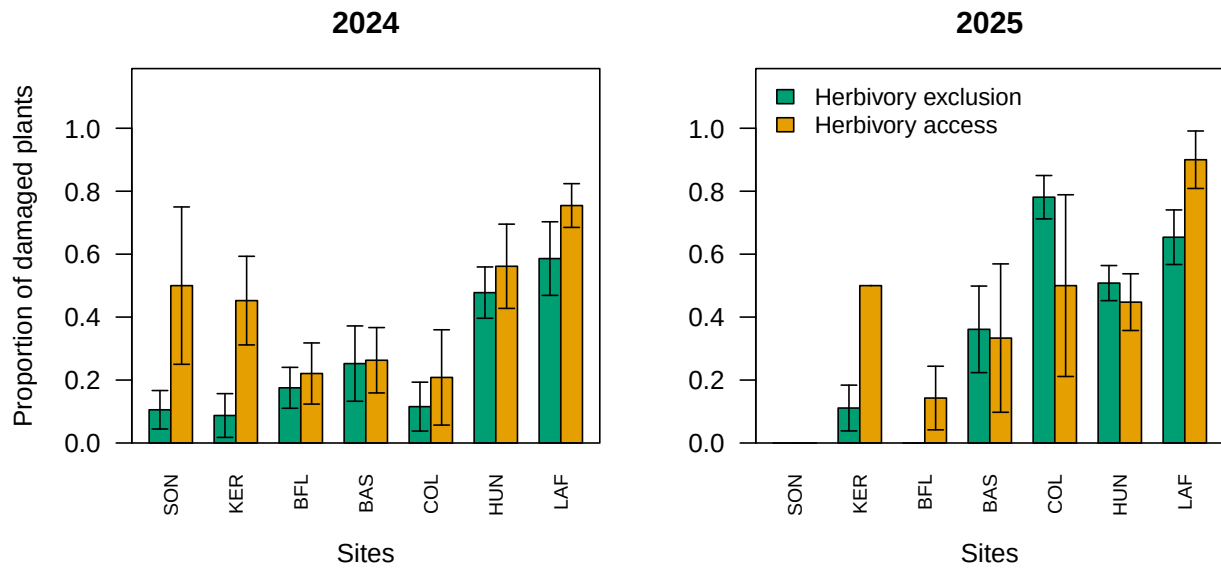


Fig S4: Proportion of plants damaged by herbivory across sites in 2024 and 2025. Barplots show fenced (dark) versus unfenced (grey) plots for each site (ordered west to east). Error bars indicate standard errors across plots within each site. Panels show results for 2024 (left) and 2025 (right).

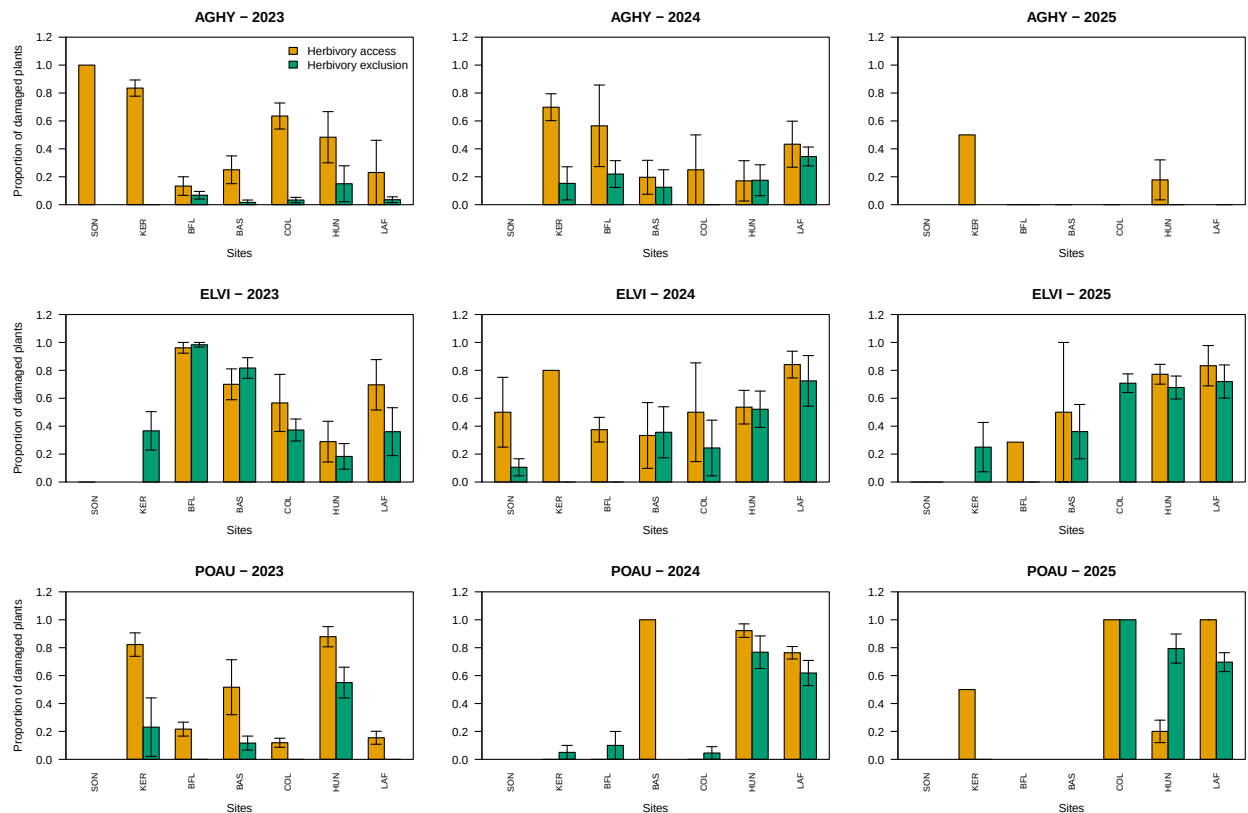


Fig S5: Proportion of plants damaged by herbivory across sites for *Agrostis hyemalis*, *Elymus virginicus*, and *Poa autumnalis* over 2023–2025. Barplots show fenced (grey80) versus unfenced (grey15) proportions for each site (ordered west to east: SON, KER, BFL, BAS, COL, HUN, LAF). Error bars indicate standard errors across plots within each site. Panels are arranged by species (rows) and year (columns).

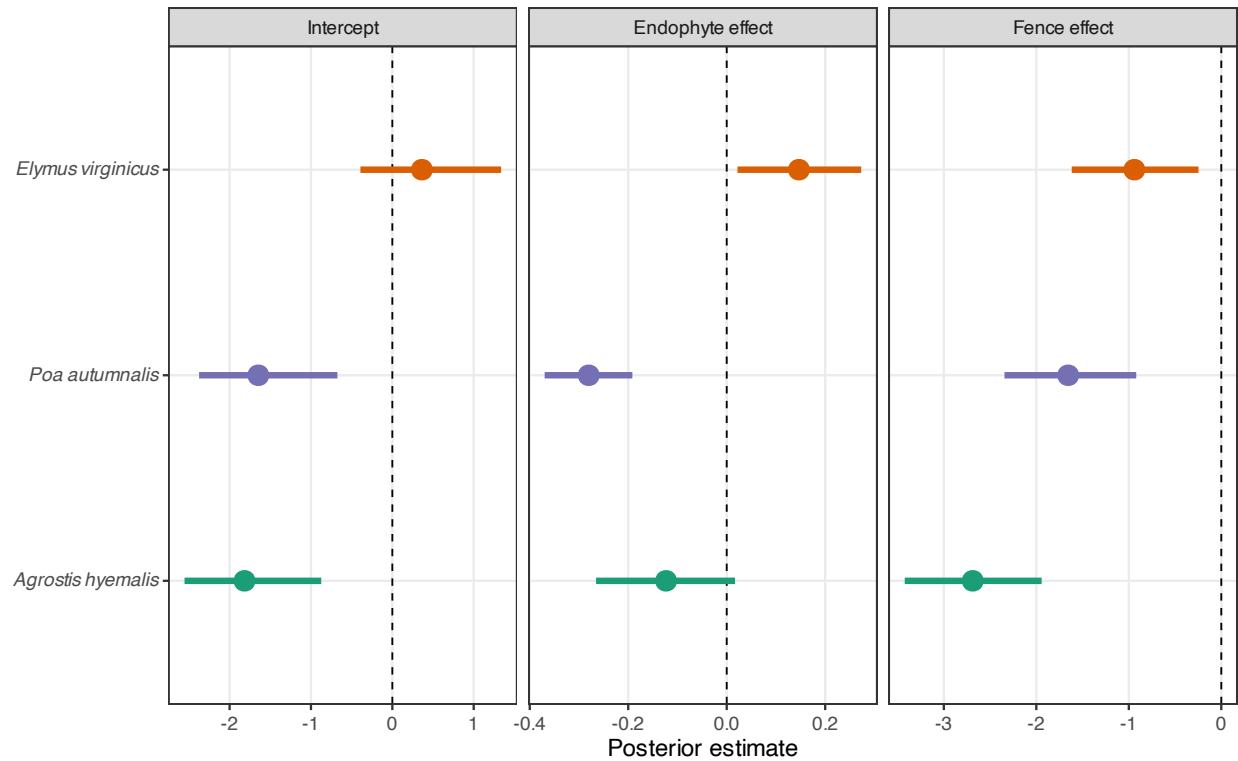
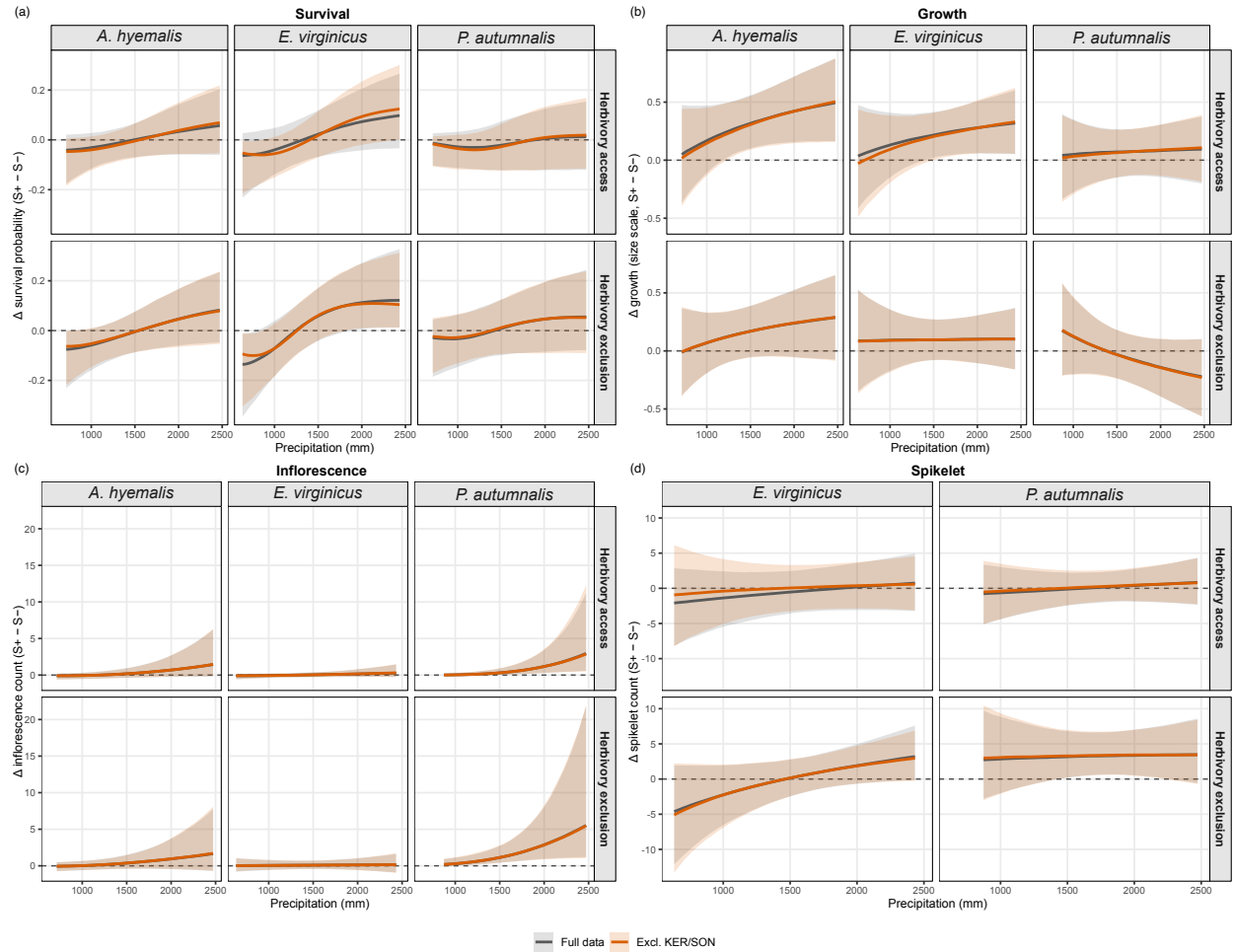


Fig S6: Posterior estimates (median and 90% credible intervals) of fence and endophyte effects on the proportion of damaged tillers for three host grass species, from a binomial model with site, year, and plot as random effects. Negative values indicate reduced herbivory damage; positive values indicate increased damage. Points and intervals are colored by species: *Agrostis hyemalis* (green), *Elymus virginicus* (orange), and *Poa autumnalis* (purple). Dashed vertical lines indicate no effect.



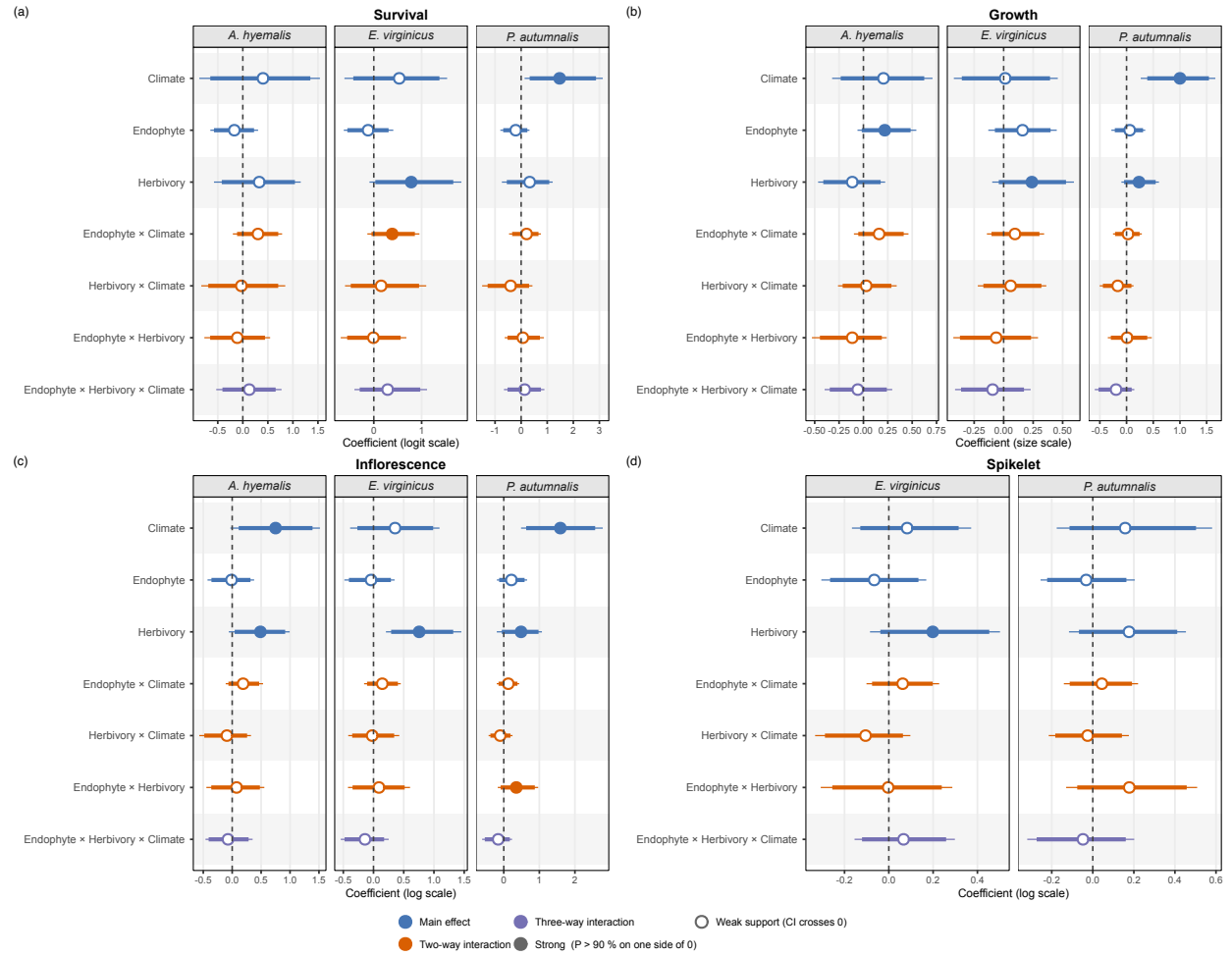


Fig S8: Posterior summaries of standardized regression coefficients from Bayesian models of survival, growth, inflorescence production, and spikelet production across three cool-season grass species (*Agrostis hyemalis*, *Elymus virginicus*, and *Poa autumnalis*; spikelet production was modeled for *E. virginicus* and *P. autumnalis* only). Panels show median posterior estimates (points), 90% credible intervals (thick bars), and 95% credible intervals (thin bars) for main effects of climate (precipitation), endophyte presence, and herbivory, as well as their two-way and three-way interactions. Filled points indicate strong posterior support for an effect ($\Pr(\Delta > 0)$ or $\Pr(\Delta < 0) > 0.90$), whereas open points indicate weaker support. Colors distinguish main effects, two-way interactions, and three-way interactions. Vertical dashed lines indicate no effect ($\beta = 0$). Coefficients are shown on the model link scale: logit for survival, linear size scale for growth, and log scale for inflorescence and spikelet production.

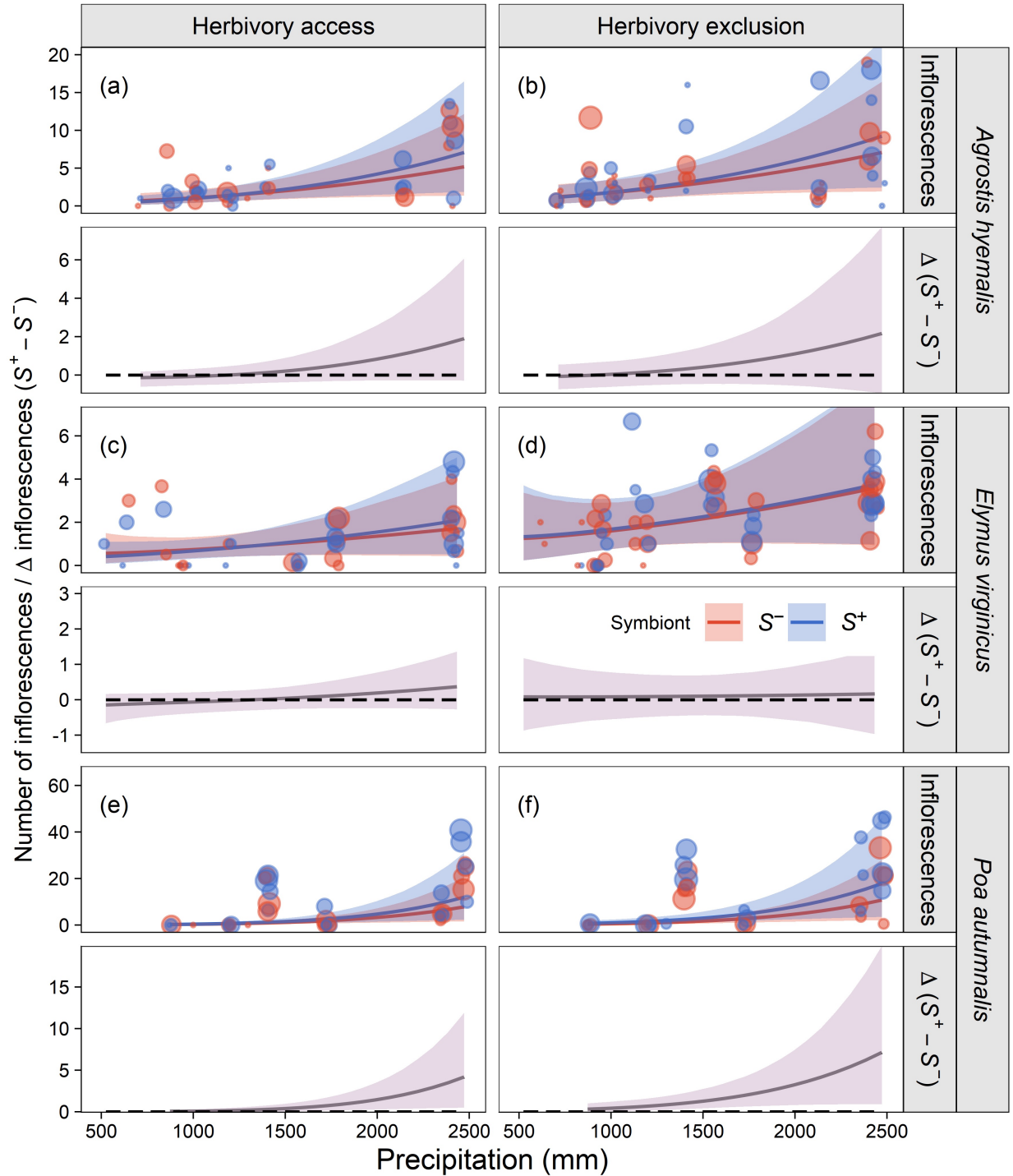


Fig S9: Predicted inflorescence production (upper panels) and symbiont effect ($\Delta = S^+ - S^-$; lower panels) across the precipitation gradient. Lines show posterior means with 90% credible intervals. Points represent mean observed inflorescences per plot, slightly jittered for visualization. The dashed line at $\Delta = 0$ indicates no symbiont effect. Panels are arranged by species and herbivory treatment (herbivore access and exclusion). All panels share a common x-axis for illustrative purposes; some species extend beyond their observed precipitation range.

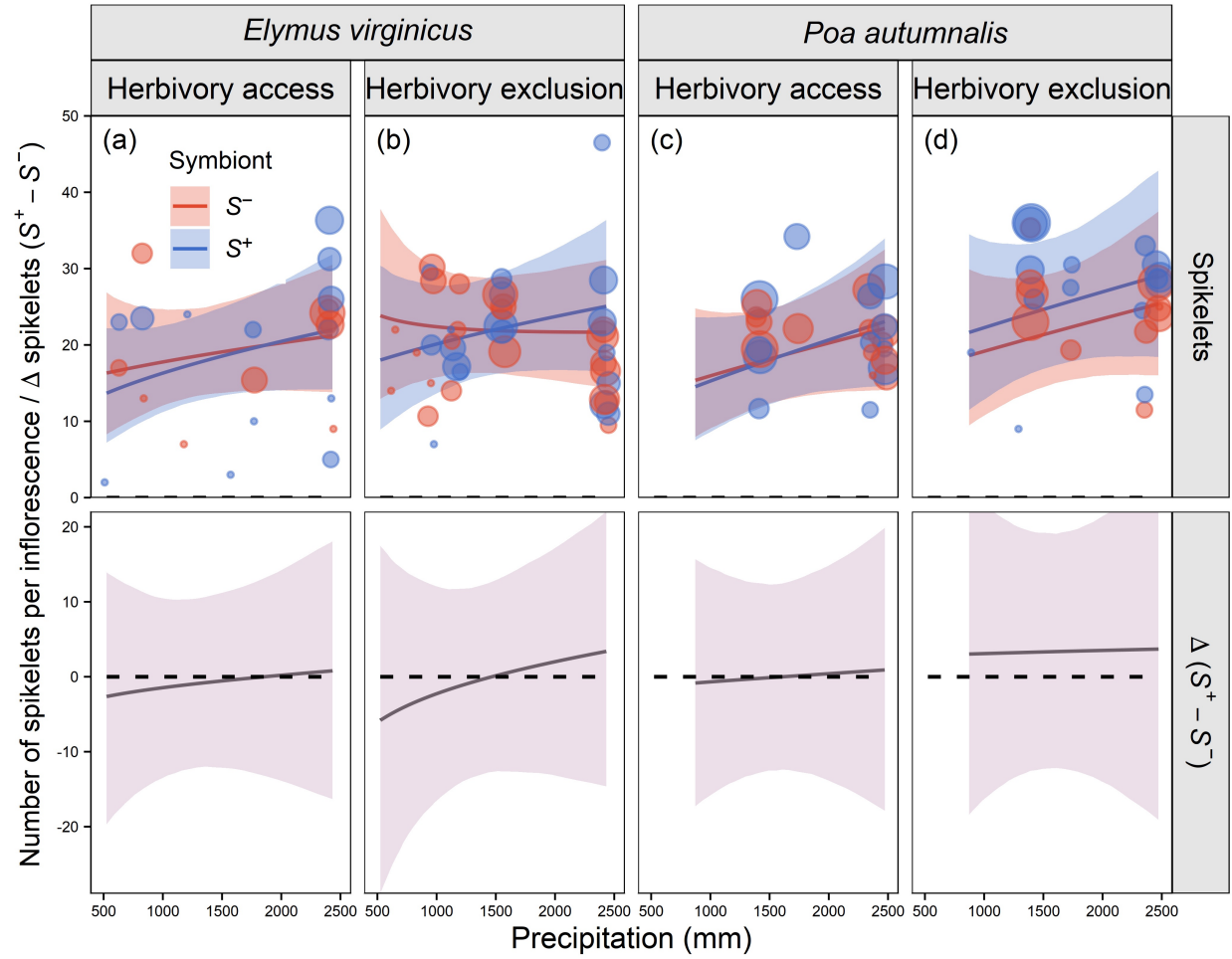


Fig S10: Predicted spikelet production (upper panels) and symbiont effect ($\Delta = S^+ - S^-$; lower panels) across the precipitation gradient. Lines show posterior means with 90% credible intervals. Points represent mean observed spikelets per plot, slightly jittered for visualization. Spikelets were measured for two species only (see Methods). The dashed line at $\Delta = 0$ indicates no symbiont effect. Panels are arranged by species and herbivory treatment (herbivore access and exclusion). All panels share a common x-axis for illustrative purposes; some species extend beyond their observed precipitation range.

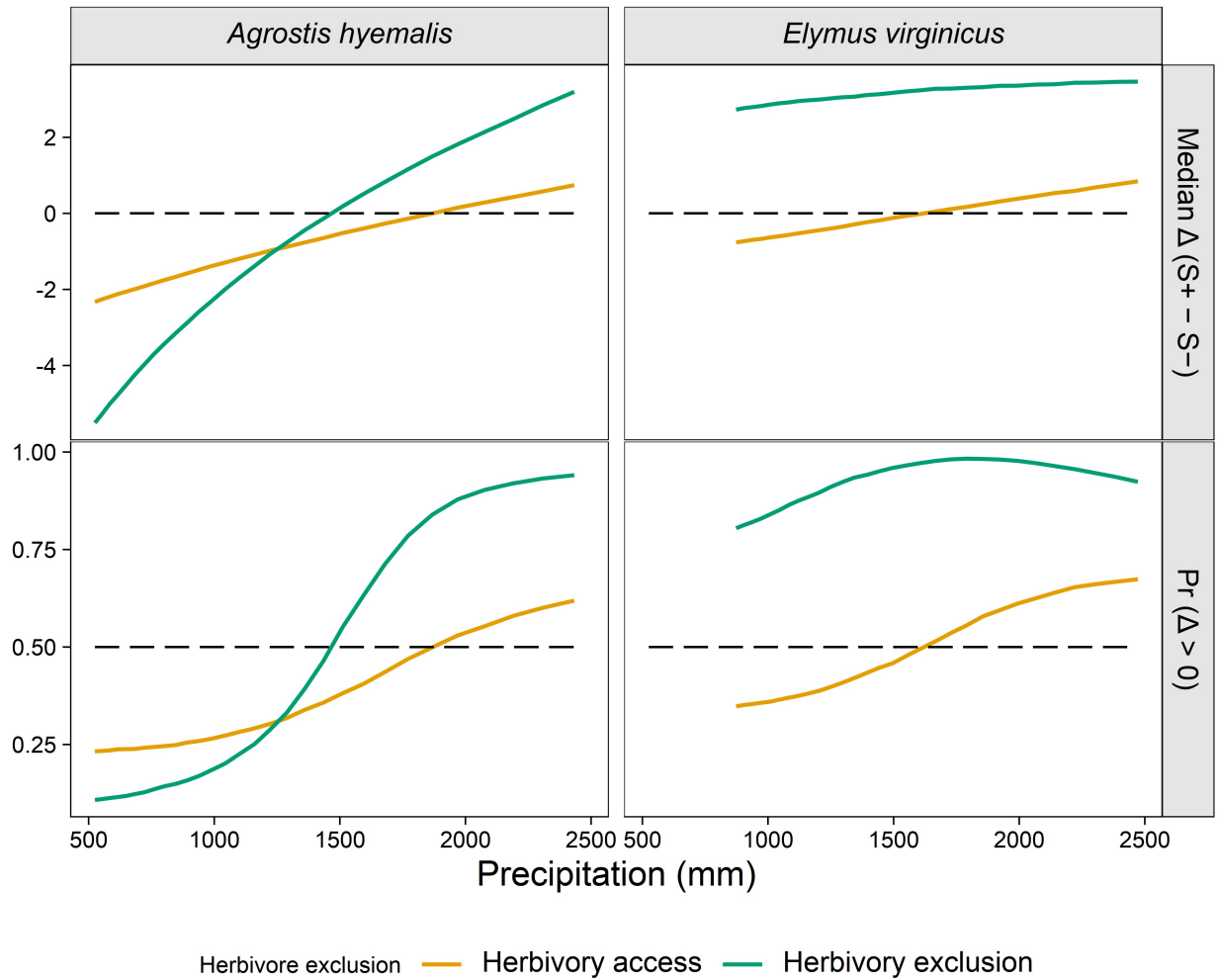


Fig S11: Median $\Delta (S+ - S-)$ and posterior probability $P(\Delta > 0)$ for spikelet production across precipitation quantiles for each species and herbivory treatment. Herbivore exclusion treatments are indicated by colour (Fenced = herbivores excluded; Unfenced = herbivores had access). Horizontal dashed lines indicate $\Delta = 0$ for medians and $P(\Delta > 0) = 0.5$ for probabilities. Panels are arranged by metric and species.